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# Topology

## 1.1 Topological Spaces

### Definition 1.1.1 ► Topology

A **topology** on a set  $X$  is a collection  $\mathcal{T} \subseteq \mathcal{P}(X)$  such that

- $\emptyset, X \in \mathcal{T}$ ;
- for any index set  $I$ , if  $\{X_i : i \in I\} \subseteq \mathcal{T}$ , then  $\bigcup_{i \in I} X_i \in \mathcal{T}$ ;
- for any  $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_n \in \mathcal{T}$ ,  $\bigcap_{i=1}^n X_i \in \mathcal{T}$ .

The pair  $(X, \mathcal{T})$  is said to be a **topological space**. A subset  $Y \subseteq X$  is **open** if  $Y \in \mathcal{T}$ .

*Remark.* For any set  $X$ , we define  $\{\emptyset, X\}$  as the *trivial topology* on  $X$ ,  $\mathcal{P}(X)$  as the *discrete topology*, and  $\{X \setminus U : U \subseteq X \text{ is finite}\} \cup \{\emptyset\}$  as the *co-finite topology*.

The set  $\{(-\alpha, \alpha) : \alpha > 0\} \cup \{\mathbb{R}, \emptyset\}$  defines a topology on  $\mathbb{R}$ . This example also demonstrates why it is crucial to only consider closure under finite intersections when defining a topology, because

$$\bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} \left(-1 - \frac{1}{n}, 1 + \frac{1}{n}\right) = [-1, 1] \notin \mathcal{T}.$$

We now seek a systematic method to generate a topology given any set. The idea here is to make use of a *cover*.

### Definition 1.1.2 ► Basis

A **basis** for a topology on  $X$  is a collection  $\mathcal{B} \subseteq \mathcal{P}(X)$  such that

- for any  $x \in X$ , there exists some  $B \in \mathcal{B}$  such that  $x \in B$ ;
- for any  $x \in X$  and  $B_1, B_2 \in \mathcal{B}$  with  $x \in B_1 \cap B_2$ , there exists some  $B \in \mathcal{B}$  such that  $x \in B \subseteq B_1 \cap B_2$ .

It may be useful to see a basis as a cover of a set with the second additional property as stated in the above definition. Notice that the first property of the basis  $\mathcal{B}$  is basically saying that

$$X \subseteq \bigcup \mathcal{B},$$

i.e.,  $\mathcal{B}$  is a cover of  $X$ .

Given any basis  $\mathcal{B}$  for some topology on  $X$ , a set generated by  $\mathcal{B}$  can be defined as

$$\mathcal{T} := \{U \subseteq X : \text{for any } u \in U, \text{ there exists some } B \in \mathcal{B} \text{ such that } u \in B \subseteq U\}$$

We will show that  $\mathcal{T}$  is a topology on  $X$ . First, it is clear that  $\emptyset, X \in \mathcal{T}$ .

Let  $I$  be an index set and  $\{X_i : i \in I\} \subseteq \mathcal{P}(X)$  be any collection of subsets of  $X$ . Notice that for any  $x \in \bigcup_{i \in I} X_i$ , there exists some  $j \in I$  such that  $x \in X_j \subseteq \mathcal{T}$ . According to our construction, this means that there exists some  $B \in \mathcal{B}$  such that  $x \in B \subseteq X_j \subseteq \mathcal{T}$ . Therefore,  $\bigcup_{i \in I} X_i \subseteq \mathcal{T}$  as desired.

To prove that  $\mathcal{T}$  is closed under finite intersection, we consider the following lemma:

**Lemma 1.1.3 ▶ Finite Intersection of Elements in Basis Is Covered**

*Let  $\mathcal{B}$  be a basis for a topology on  $X$  and  $B_1, B_2, \dots, B_n \in \mathcal{B}$ , then for any  $x \in \bigcap_{i=1}^n B_i$ , there exists some  $B \in \mathcal{B}$  such that  $x \in B \subseteq \bigcap_{i=1}^n B_i$ .*

*Proof.* The case where  $n = 1$  is trivial by taking  $B = B_1$ . Suppose that there is some integer  $k \geq 1$  such that for any  $B_1, B_2, \dots, B_k \in \mathcal{B}$  and any  $x \in \bigcap_{i=1}^k B_i$ , there exists some  $B \in \mathcal{B}$  such that  $x \in B \subseteq \bigcap_{i=1}^k B_i$ . Take any  $B_{k+1} \in \mathcal{B}$ . It is clear that for any  $x \in \bigcap_{i=1}^{k+1} B_i$ , there exists some  $B \in \mathcal{B}$  such that

$$x \in B \subseteq \bigcap_{i=1}^k B_i.$$

Notice that  $x \in B_{k+1} \in \mathcal{B}$ , so we know that  $x \in B \cap B_{k+1}$ . By Definition 1.1.2, this means that there exists some  $B' \in \mathcal{B}$  such that

$$x \in B' \subseteq B \cap B_{k+1} \subseteq \bigcap_{i=1}^{k+1} B_i.$$

□

Now, suppose  $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_n \in \mathcal{T}$  are finitely many subsets of  $X$ . Take any  $x \in \bigcap_{i=1}^n X_i$ . It is clear that  $x \in X_i$  for each  $i = 1, 2, \dots, n$ . Therefore, for each  $i = 1, 2, \dots, n$ , there exists some  $B_i \in \mathcal{B}$  such that  $x \in B_i \subseteq X_i$ . By Lemma 1.1.3, this means that there exists some set  $B \in \mathcal{B}$  such that

$$x \in B \subseteq \bigcap_{i=1}^n B_i \subseteq \bigcap_{i=1}^n X_i.$$

Therefore,  $\bigcap_{i=1}^n X_i \in \mathcal{T}$ . So this set  $\mathcal{T}$  generated by  $\mathcal{B}$  is indeed a topology on  $X$ .

The following proposition further shows that the topology generated by a basis  $\mathcal{B}$  is the set

of all possible unions of elements in  $\mathcal{B}$ :

**Proposition 1.1.4 ▶ Equivalent Construction of Topologies Generated from Bases**

Let  $X$  be any set. If  $\mathcal{B}$  is a basis for a topology  $\mathcal{T}$  on  $X$ , then

$$\mathcal{T} = \left\{ \bigcup_{A \in \mathcal{V}} A : \mathcal{V} \in \mathcal{P}(\mathcal{B}) \right\}.$$

*Proof.* Denote

$$\mathcal{T}_{\mathcal{B}} := \{U \subseteq X : \text{for any } u \in U, \text{ there exists some } B \in \mathcal{B} \text{ such that } u \in B \subseteq U\}.$$

It suffices to prove that  $\mathcal{T} = \mathcal{T}_{\mathcal{B}}$ . Take any  $T \in \mathcal{T}$ , then there exists some  $\mathcal{V} \in \mathcal{P}(\mathcal{B})$  such that  $T = \bigcup_{A \in \mathcal{V}} A$ . This means that for every  $t \in T$ , there exists some  $B_t \in \mathcal{V}$  such that  $t \in B_t \subseteq T$ . Therefore,  $T \in \mathcal{T}_{\mathcal{B}}$ . Conversely, for any  $S \in \mathcal{T}_{\mathcal{B}}$ , there exists some  $B_s \in \mathcal{B}$  for each  $s \in S$  such that  $s \in B_s$ . Denote  $\mathcal{U} := \{B_s : s \in S\} \in \mathcal{P}(\mathcal{B})$ , then it is clear that  $S \subseteq \bigcup_{B \in \mathcal{U}} B$ . Since  $B_s \subseteq S$  for each  $s \in S$ , we have  $\bigcup_{B \in \mathcal{U}} B \subseteq S$ , which implies that  $S = \bigcup_{B \in \mathcal{U}} B$ . This means that  $S \in \mathcal{T}$ . Therefore,  $\mathcal{T} \subseteq \mathcal{T}_{\mathcal{B}}$  and  $\mathcal{T}_{\mathcal{B}} \subseteq \mathcal{T}$ , which means that  $\mathcal{T} = \mathcal{T}_{\mathcal{B}}$ .  $\square$

Next, we define a special topology in Euclidean spaces using open balls.

**Definition 1.1.5 ▶ Standard Topology**

For any  $\mathbf{x} = (x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n) \in \mathbb{R}^n$  and any  $r > 0$ . Denote the Euclidean open ball centred at  $\mathbf{x}$  with radius  $r$  by

$$B_r(\mathbf{x}) := \left\{ \mathbf{y} = (y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n) \in \mathbb{R}^n : \sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^n (x_i - y_i)^2} < r \right\}$$

The **standard topology** on  $\mathbb{R}^n$  is the set generated by the basis

$$\mathcal{B} := \{B_r(\mathbf{x}) : \mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^n, r \in \mathbb{R}^+\}.$$

It may be helpful to actually show that this set  $\mathcal{B}$  is indeed a basis of a topology on  $\mathbb{R}^n$ . The fact that  $\mathcal{B}$  is a cover for  $\mathbb{R}^n$  is trivial enough. Take any  $\mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^n$  and balls  $B_{\alpha}(\mathbf{x}_1), B_{\beta}(\mathbf{x}_2) \in \mathcal{B}$  such that  $\mathbf{x} \in B_{\alpha}(\mathbf{x}_1) \cap B_{\beta}(\mathbf{x}_2)$  (the existence of these 2 balls is again trivial enough). Take

$$r = \min \{\alpha - \|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}_1\|, \beta - \|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}_2\|\}.$$

Clearly,  $r > 0$  and  $\mathbf{x} \in B_r(\mathbf{x})$ , so we are done.

Now, we discuss the analogue of the subset relation in topologies.

### Definition 1.1.6 ► Fineness and Coarseness

Let  $\mathcal{T}$  and  $\mathcal{T}'$  be topologies on some set  $X$ . We say that  $\mathcal{T}$  is **finer** than  $\mathcal{T}'$ , or equivalently, that  $\mathcal{T}'$  is **coarser** than  $\mathcal{T}$ , if  $\mathcal{T}' \subseteq \mathcal{T}$ .

Observe that any topology of  $X$  must be a subset of  $\mathcal{P}(X)$ , which is the discrete topology on  $X$ , so the discrete topology is the finest topology on a set.

*Remark.* For any basis  $\mathcal{B}$  for a topology on  $X$ , the topology generated by  $\mathcal{B}$  is the coarsest topology containing  $\mathcal{B}$ .

The above remark is easy to verify. Let  $\mathcal{T}$  be any topology on  $X$  with  $\mathcal{B} \subseteq \mathcal{T}$  and  $\mathcal{T}_{\mathcal{B}}$  be the topology generated by  $\mathcal{B}$ . For any  $T \in \mathcal{T}_{\mathcal{B}}$ , by Proposition 1.1.4, there exists some  $V \subseteq \mathcal{B}$  such that  $T = \bigcup_{A \in V} A$ . Note that  $A \in \mathcal{T}$  for all  $A \in \mathcal{V}$ , so by Definition 1.1.1,  $T \in \mathcal{T}$  and so  $\mathcal{T}_{\mathcal{B}} \subseteq \mathcal{T}$  as desired.

This motivates us to consider fineness in terms of bases.

### Proposition 1.1.7 ► Fineness in Terms of Bases

Let  $\mathcal{B}$  and  $\mathcal{B}'$  generate topologies  $\mathcal{T}$  and  $\mathcal{T}'$  respectively on  $X$ .  $\mathcal{T}'$  is finer than  $\mathcal{T}$  if and only if for every  $B \in \mathcal{B}$  and any  $x \in B$ , there exists some  $B_x \in \mathcal{B}'$  such that  $x \in B_x \subseteq B$ .

*Proof.* Suppose that  $\mathcal{T}'$  is finer than  $\mathcal{T}$ , then  $\mathcal{T} \subseteq \mathcal{T}'$ . Take any  $B \in \mathcal{B}$ , then by Proposition 1.1.4,  $B \in \mathcal{T}$ , which means that  $B \in \mathcal{T}'$ . Since  $\mathcal{B}'$  is a basis for  $\mathcal{T}'$ , by Definition 1.1.2 for any  $x \in B$ , there exists some  $B_x \in \mathcal{B}'$  such that  $x \in B_x \subseteq B$ .

Suppose conversely that for every  $B \in \mathcal{B}$  and any  $x \in B$ , there is some  $B_x \in \mathcal{B}'$  such that  $x \in B_x \subseteq B$ . Take any  $T \in \mathcal{T}$ , for each  $x \in T$ , by Definition 1.1.2 there exists some  $B \in \mathcal{B}$  such that  $x \in B \subseteq T$ , and so we can find some  $B_x \in \mathcal{B}'$  such that  $x \in B_x \subseteq B \subseteq T$ , so  $T \in \mathcal{T}'$ . Therefore,  $\mathcal{T} \subseteq \mathcal{T}'$  and so  $\mathcal{T}'$  is finer than  $\mathcal{T}$ .  $\square$

Recall that every basis of a topology on  $X$  is an open cover of  $X$  consisting only of subsets of  $X$ . Therefore, the union of the elements in the basis is essentially  $X$  itself. This motivates us to propose another way to generate a topology on a set.

### Definition 1.1.8 ► Sub-basis

A **sub-basis** of  $X$  is a collection  $\mathcal{S} \subseteq \mathcal{P}(X)$  such that  $\bigcup_{A \in \mathcal{S}} A = X$ .

*Remark.* Every basis is a sub-basis.

For an arbitrary set  $X$ , let  $\mathcal{S}$  be a sub-basis and denote the collection of all finite subsets of  $\mathcal{P}(\mathcal{S})$  as  $\mathcal{F}_{\mathcal{S}}$ . Define

$$\mathcal{U}_{\mathcal{S}} := \left\{ \bigcap_{A \in F} A : F \in \mathcal{F}_{\mathcal{S}} \right\}$$

to be the collection of all finite intersections of sets in  $\mathcal{S}$ . The topology generated by a sub-basis of  $X$  is given by

$$\mathcal{T} := \left\{ \bigcup_{A \in \mathcal{V}} A : \mathcal{V} \subseteq \mathcal{U}_{\mathcal{S}} \right\}.$$

We shall show that  $\mathcal{T}$  is indeed a topology on  $X$  by considering the following proposition:

**Proposition 1.1.9 ▶ Finite Intersections of Sets in a Sub-basis Form a Basis**

Let  $\mathcal{S}$  be a sub-basis for a set  $X$  and let  $\mathcal{U}_{\mathcal{S}}$  be the set of all finite intersections of sets in  $\mathcal{S}$ , then  $\mathcal{U}_{\mathcal{S}}$  is a basis of a topology on  $X$ .

*Proof.* Take any  $x \in X$ . By Definition 1.1.8, we have  $x \in \bigcup_{A \in \mathcal{S}} A$ . Therefore, there exists some  $A \in \mathcal{S} \subseteq \mathcal{P}(X)$  such that  $x \in A$ . For any  $x \in X$  and  $B_1, B_2 \in \mathcal{U}_{\mathcal{S}}$  such that  $x \in B_1 \cap B_2$ , notice that  $B_1 \cap B_2$  is a finite intersection of sets in  $\mathcal{S}$ , so  $B_1 \cap B_2 \in \mathcal{U}_{\mathcal{S}}$ . Therefore, by Definition 1.1.2,  $\mathcal{U}_{\mathcal{S}}$  is a basis.  $\square$

With Propositions 1.1.9 and 1.1.4, it is clear that  $\mathcal{T}$  as constructed above is a topology on  $X$ .

## 1.2 Metric Spaces

**Definition 1.2.1 ▶ Metric**

A **metric** on a set  $S$  is a function  $d : S \times S \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$  such that:

- $d(x, y) \geq 0$  for all  $x, y \in S$  (positivity);
- $d(x, y) = 0$  if and only if  $x = y$  (definiteness);
- $d(x, y) = d(y, x)$  for all  $x, y \in S$  (symmetry);
- $d(x, y) \leq d(x, z) + d(y, z)$  for all  $x, y, z \in S$  (triangular inequality).

*Remark.* A metric is sometimes also called a *distance function*.

A metric generalises the notion of distance in Euclidean spaces. We can weaken the above axioms to arrive at the following definition:

**Definition 1.2.2 ▶ Pseudo-metric**

A **pseudo-metric** on a set  $S$  is a function  $d : S \times S \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$  such that:

- $d(x, y) \geq 0$  for all  $x, y \in S$  (positivity);
- $d(x, x) = 0$  for all  $x \in S$ ;
- $d(x, y) = d(y, x)$  for all  $x, y \in S$  (symmetry);
- $d(x, y) \leq d(x, z) + d(y, z)$  for all  $x, y, z \in S$  (triangular inequality).

The key difference between a pseudo-metric and a metric is that a pseudo-metric only requires that every element is at 0 distance away from itself, whereas a metric requires that every element is **the only element** that is at 0 distance away from itself.

By dropping the requirement on symmetry, we obtain the following definition:

**Definition 1.2.3 ▶ Quasi-metric**

A **quasi-metric** on a set  $S$  is a function  $d : S \times S \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$  such that:

- $d(x, y) \geq 0$  for all  $x, y \in S$  (positivity);
- $d(x, y) = 0$  if and only if  $x = y$  (definiteness);
- $d(x, y) \leq d(x, z) + d(y, z)$  for all  $x, y, z \in S$  (triangular inequality).

We equip a set with a metric to generalise the Euclidean spaces.

**Definition 1.2.4 ▶ Metric Space**

A **metric space**  $(S, d)$  is a set  $S$  together with a metric  $d$  on  $S$ .

The most basic example of a metric is the *discrete metric* defined by

$$d(x, y) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } x \neq y \\ 0 & \text{if } x = y \end{cases}$$

over any set  $X$ , which essentially is just a characteristic function.

Recall that in an inner product space  $(V, g)$  over some field  $\mathbb{F}$ , we can define the length of any  $\mathbf{v} \in V$  as

$$\|\mathbf{v}\| = \sqrt{g(\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{v})}.$$

This length function induces a metric over  $V$  given by

$$d(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) = \|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{y}\|.$$

In the Euclidean space  $\mathbb{R}^n$ , a usual definition for distance is

$$d_2(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) = \left[ \sum_{i=1}^n (y_i - x_i)^2 \right]^{\frac{1}{2}}.$$

Note that  $(\mathbb{R}^n, d_2)$  is a metric space, where  $d_2$  is known as the *Euclidean distance*. In general, we can prove that for any  $p \in \mathbb{N}^+$ ,

$$d_p(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) = \left[ \sum_{i=1}^n \|y_i - x_i\|^p \right]^{\frac{1}{p}}$$

is a metric over  $\mathbb{F}^n$  for any inner product space  $(\mathbb{F}^n, g)$  where  $\mathbb{F}$  is a field, known as the  $L^p$ -norm. Furthermore, notice that

$$\max_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+, i \leq n} \|y_i - x_i\|^p \leq \sum_{i=1}^n \|y_i - x_i\|^p \leq n \max_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+, i \leq n} \|y_i - x_i\|^p.$$

Taking the  $p$ -th root on all three parts, we have

$$\max_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+, i \leq n} \|y_i - x_i\| \leq \left[ \sum_{i=1}^n \|y_i - x_i\|^p \right]^{\frac{1}{p}} \leq n^{\frac{1}{p}} \max_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+, i \leq n} \|y_i - x_i\|.$$

By Squeeze Theorem, this allows us to define

$$d_\infty(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) = \lim_{p \rightarrow \infty} d_p(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) = \max_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+, i \leq n} \|y_i - x_i\|.$$

$d_\infty(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y})$  can be alternatively written as  $\|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{y}\|_\infty$ , which is known as the *infinite norm*.

The  $p$ -adic numbers can be defined from the following lemma:

#### Lemma 1.2.5 ► $p$ -adic Numbers

Let  $p$  be any prime number. For all  $x \in \mathbb{Q} \setminus \{0\}$ , there exists a unique  $k \in \mathbb{Z}$  such that

$$x = \frac{p^k r}{s}, \quad r, s \in \mathbb{Z}$$

with  $p \nmid r, s$  and  $s \neq 0$ .

The  $p$ -adic norm is defined as

$$|x|_p = \begin{cases} p^{-k} & \text{if } x = \frac{p^k r}{s}, \\ 0 & \text{if } x = 0 \end{cases},$$



which induces a metric over  $\mathbb{Q}$  defined by

$$d(x, y) = |x - y|_p.$$

We can show that the  $p$ -adic metric satisfies

$$d(x, z) \leq \max\{d(x, y), d(y, z)\}$$

for all  $x, y, z \in \mathbb{Q}$ . Such a metric is known as an *ultra-metric*.

Given any metric space, the metric will induce a distance between subsets of the space.

#### Definition 1.2.6 ► Distance between Subsets

Let  $(X, d)$  be a metric space and  $A, B \subseteq X$  be non-empty. The **distance** between  $A$  and  $B$  is defined as

$$d(A, B) := \inf\{d(x, y) : (x, y) \in A \times B\}.$$

Additionally, we may wish to define a measure for the size of a subset in a metric space.

#### Definition 1.2.7 ► Diameter

Let  $(X, d)$  be a metric space. The **diameter** of a set  $A \subseteq X$  is defined as

$$\text{diam}(A) := \sup\{d(x, y) : (x, y) \in A \times A\}.$$

The set  $A$  is **bounded** if  $\text{diam}(A)$  is finite.

The name “diameter” is not a coincidence with the diameter of a graph. Specifically, if we consider a graph  $G = (V, E)$ , the pair  $(V, d)$  forms a metric space with  $d(u, v)$  being the usual distance between two vertices in  $G$  defined as the size of the shortest  $u$ - $v$  path in  $G$ . It is clear that  $d$  is indeed a metric.

Now, let us consider the subgraph  $H \subseteq G$  induced by any  $U \subseteq V$  and check the eccentricity for  $H$ , i.e.,

$$\epsilon(u) = \max\{d_H(u, u') : u' \in U\} \quad \text{for all } u \in U.$$

Now, the diameters for  $H$  can be computed as

$$\begin{aligned} \text{diam}(H) &= \max\{\epsilon(u) : u \in U\} \\ &= \sup\{d_H(u, u') : (u, u') \in U \times U\}, \end{aligned}$$

and this obviously agrees with Definition 1.2.7!

Recall that in Definition 1.1.5, we use Euclidean open balls to construct a basis for a topology on  $\mathbb{R}^n$ . We can generalise this idea in any metric space.

### Proposition 1.2.8 ► Metric Induces a Basis

Let  $(X, d)$  be a metric space. Define

$$B_r(x) := \{y \in X : d(x, y) < r\},$$

then collection

$$\mathcal{B}_d := \{B_r(x) : x \in X, r \in \mathbb{R}^+\}$$

is a basis for a topology on  $X$ .

*Proof.* Notice that for any  $x \in X$ , we have  $x \in B_1(x) \in \mathcal{B}_d$ . Let  $B_p(x_1), B_q(x_2) \in \mathcal{B}_d$  be such that  $x \in B_p(x_1) \cap B_q(x_2)$ . Take  $k = \min\{p - d(x, x_1), q - d(x, x_2)\}$ , then clearly  $k > 0$  and we can find  $B_k(x) \subseteq B_p(x_1) \cap B_q(x_2)$  such that  $x \in B_k(x) \in \mathcal{B}_d$ . Therefore,  $\mathcal{B}_d$  is a basis for a topology on  $X$ .  $\square$

Since we can obtain a basis from a metric, it follows naturally that we can generate a topology using this induced basis.

### Definition 1.2.9 ► Metrisable Topology

Let  $(X, d)$  be a metric space. A topology  $\mathcal{T}$  on  $X$  is **metrisable**, or **induced** by  $d$ , if it is generated by  $\mathcal{B}_d$

We can verify that the discrete topology  $\mathcal{P}(X)$  is induced by the discrete metric. Let the discrete metric on  $X$  be  $\chi$ , then it is easy to see that

$$B_r(x) = \begin{cases} \{x\} & \text{if } 0 < r \leq 1 \\ X & \text{if } r > 1 \end{cases}.$$

Therefore,

$$\mathcal{B}_\chi = \{X\} \cup \{\{x\} : x \in X\}.$$

Let  $\mathcal{T}_\chi$  be the topology on  $X$  generated by  $\mathcal{B}_\chi$ , then it suffices to prove that  $\mathcal{P}(X) \subseteq \mathcal{T}_\chi$ . Take any  $U \in \mathcal{P}(X)$ , then for any  $u \in U$ , we have  $u \in \{u\} \subseteq U$ . Clearly  $\{u\} \in \mathcal{B}_\chi$ , so  $\mathcal{T}_\chi = \mathcal{P}(X)$  is the discrete topology indeed.

In particular, for Euclidean spaces, the following result extends Definition 1.1.5:

**Proposition 1.2.10 ▶ Every  $L^p$ -metric Generates the Standard Topology**

Let  $\mathcal{T}$  be the standard topology on  $\mathbb{R}^n$ , then  $\mathcal{T}$  is induced by any  $L^p$ -metric  $d_p$ .

*Proof.* For any  $p \in \mathbb{N}^+$ , notice that

$$\max_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+, i \leq n} \|y_i - x_i\|^p \leq \sum_{i=1}^n \|y_i - x_i\|^p \leq n \max_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+, i \leq n} \|y_i - x_i\|^p.$$

Taking the  $p$ -th root yields

$$\max_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+, i \leq n} \|y_i - x_i\| \leq \left[ \sum_{i=1}^n \|y_i - x_i\|^p \right]^{\frac{1}{p}} \leq n^{\frac{1}{p}} \max_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+, i \leq n} \|y_i - x_i\|.$$

This means that

$$d_\infty(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) \leq d_p(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) \leq n^{\frac{1}{p}} d_\infty(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}).$$

Let  $\mathcal{T}_0$  and  $\mathcal{T}_p$  be topologies on  $\mathbb{R}^n$  generated by  $\mathcal{B}_{d_\infty}$  and  $\mathcal{B}_{d_p}$  respectively. Take any  $T \in \mathcal{T}_p$ , then for any  $\mathbf{t} \in T$ , there is some  $B_r(\mathbf{t}') \in \mathcal{B}_{d_p}$  such that  $\mathbf{t} \in B_r(\mathbf{t}') \subseteq T$ . Take some  $\ell = \frac{1}{2}|r - d_p(\mathbf{t}, \mathbf{t}')|$ , then we have found  $B_\ell(\mathbf{t}) \in \mathcal{B}_{d_p}$  such that

$$\mathbf{t} \in B_\ell(\mathbf{t}) \subseteq B_r(\mathbf{t}') \subseteq T.$$

Take  $k = \frac{1}{2}\ell n^{-\frac{1}{p}}$  and consider

$$B_k(\mathbf{t}) := \{\mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^n : d_\infty(\mathbf{t}, \mathbf{y}) < k\} \in \mathcal{B}_{d_\infty}.$$

Notice that for each  $\mathbf{y} \in B_k(\mathbf{t})$ , we have

$$d_p(\mathbf{t}, \mathbf{y}) \leq n^{\frac{1}{p}} d_\infty(\mathbf{t}, \mathbf{y}) < \ell,$$

so  $\mathbf{t} \in B_k(\mathbf{t}) \subseteq B_\ell(\mathbf{t}) \subseteq T$ . This implies that  $T \in \mathcal{T}_0$  and so  $\mathcal{T}_p \subseteq \mathcal{T}_0$ . By a similar argument, one may check that  $\mathcal{T}_0 \subseteq \mathcal{T}_p$ . Therefore,  $\mathcal{T}_0 = \mathcal{T}_p$  for any  $p \in \mathbb{N}^+$ . Note that by Definition 1.1.5,  $\mathcal{T}$  is generated by  $\mathcal{B}_{d_2}$ , which means that  $\mathcal{T} = \mathcal{T}_2 = \mathcal{T}_0 = \mathcal{T}_p$  for any  $p \in \mathbb{N}^+$ . Therefore,  $\mathcal{T}$  is induced by any  $L^p$ -metric  $d_p$ .  $\square$

The fact that

$$d_\infty(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) \leq d_p(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) \leq n^{\frac{1}{p}} d_\infty(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y})$$

means that all  $L^p$ -metrics are equivalent over the same space.

## 1.3 Subspace Topologies

### Definition 1.3.1 ► Subspace Topology

Let  $(Y, \mathcal{T}_Y)$  be a topological space and  $X \subseteq Y$  be some subset. The collection

$$\mathcal{T}_X := \{U \cap X : U \in \mathcal{T}_Y\}$$

is the **subspace topology** on  $X$ .

We may check that  $\mathcal{T}_X$  defined as such is indeed a topology on  $X$ . First, by taking  $U = \emptyset$  and  $U = Y$  respectively, we know that  $\emptyset, X \in \mathcal{T}_X$ . For any  $U \in \mathcal{T}_Y$ , we have  $Y \setminus U \in \mathcal{T}_Y$  and so

$$X \setminus (U \cap X) = (Y \setminus U) \cap X \in \mathcal{T}_X.$$

For any  $\mathcal{V} \subseteq \mathcal{T}_X$ , we define a subset  $\mathcal{U}_{\mathcal{V}} \subseteq \mathcal{T}_Y$  such that for each  $V \in \mathcal{V}$  there is a unique  $U_V \in \mathcal{U}_{\mathcal{V}}$  such that  $V = U_V \cap X$ . Then,

$$\begin{aligned} \bigcup_{A \in \mathcal{V}} A &= \bigcup_{B \in \mathcal{U}_{\mathcal{V}}} (B \cap X) \\ &= \left( \bigcup_{B \in \mathcal{U}_{\mathcal{V}}} B \right) \cap X \\ &\in \mathcal{T}_X. \end{aligned}$$

Let  $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_n \in \mathcal{T}_X$  and define  $X_i = U_i \cap X$  where  $U_i \in \mathcal{T}_Y$  for  $i = 1, 2, \dots, n$ , then

$$\begin{aligned} \bigcap_{i=1}^n X_i &= \bigcap_{i=1}^n (U_i \cap X) \\ &= \left( \bigcap_{i=1}^n U_i \right) \cap X \\ &\in \mathcal{T}_X. \end{aligned}$$

So  $\mathcal{T}_X$  is really a topology on  $X$ . Intuitively, the following holds:

### Proposition 1.3.2 ► Basis for a Subspace

Let  $(Y, \mathcal{T}_Y)$  be a topological space and  $\mathcal{T}_X$  be the subspace topology on some  $X \subseteq Y$ . If  $\mathcal{B}_Y$  is a basis of  $\mathcal{T}_Y$ , then

$$\mathcal{B}_X := \{B \cap X : B \in \mathcal{B}_Y\}$$

is a basis of  $\mathcal{T}_X$ .

*Proof.* We first prove that  $\mathcal{B}_X$  is a basis. Take any  $x \in X \subseteq Y$ . Note that there exists some  $B \in \mathcal{B}_Y$  such that  $x \in B$ . Take  $B \cap X \in \mathcal{B}_X$ , then  $x \in B \cap X$ . For any  $B_1, B_2 \in \mathcal{B}_X$  with  $x \in B_1 \cap B_2$ , we write  $B_1 := B'_1 \cap X$  and  $B_2 := B'_2 \cap X$  where  $B'_1, B'_2 \in \mathcal{B}_Y$ , then we have  $x \in B'_1 \cap B'_2$ . This means that there is some  $B \in \mathcal{B}_Y$  such that  $x \in B \subseteq B'_1 \cap B'_2$ . Write  $B' := B \cap X \in \mathcal{B}_X$ , then for each  $b \in B'$ , we know that  $b \in B'_1 \cap B'_2$  and  $b \in X$ , which implies that  $b \in B_1 \cap B_2$ . Therefore,  $x \in B' \subseteq B_1 \cap B_2$ . This means that  $\mathcal{B}_X$  is a basis of a topology on  $X$ .

We then prove that  $\mathcal{T}_X$  is generated by  $\mathcal{B}_X$ . Let  $\mathcal{T}$  be the topology generated by  $\mathcal{B}_X$ . By Proposition 1.1.4, we have

$$\mathcal{T} = \left\{ \bigcup_{A \in \mathcal{V}} A : \mathcal{V} \subseteq \mathcal{B}_X \right\}.$$

Similarly, we can write

$$\mathcal{T}_Y = \left\{ \bigcup_{A \in \mathcal{V}} A : \mathcal{V} \subseteq \mathcal{B}_Y \right\}.$$

Take any  $T \in \mathcal{T}_X$ , then there exists some  $\mathcal{V} \subseteq \mathcal{B}_Y$  such that

$$\begin{aligned} T &= \left( \bigcup_{A \in \mathcal{V}} A \right) \cap X \\ &= \bigcup_{A \in \mathcal{V}} A \cap X \\ &\in \mathcal{T}. \end{aligned}$$

Therefore,  $\mathcal{T}_X \subseteq \mathcal{T}$ . Conversely, take any  $T' \in \mathcal{T}$ , there exists some  $\mathcal{U} \subseteq \mathcal{B}_Y$  such that

$$\begin{aligned} T' &= \bigcup_{B \in \mathcal{U}} (B \cap X) \\ &= \left( \bigcup_{B \in \mathcal{U}} B \right) \cap X \\ &\in \mathcal{T}_X. \end{aligned}$$

Therefore,  $\mathcal{T} \subseteq \mathcal{T}_X$  and so  $\mathcal{T}_X = \mathcal{T}$ . □

The following result shows that open sets in subspaces remain open in the superspace:

**Proposition 1.3.3 ▶ Superspace Preserve Open Sets**

Let  $(Y, \mathcal{T}_Y)$  be a topological space. If  $X \subseteq Y$  is open in  $Y$  and  $U \subseteq X$  is open in  $X$ , then  $U$  is open in  $Y$ .

*Proof.* Let  $\mathcal{T}_X$  be the subspace topology on  $X$ . Since  $U$  is open in  $X$ , we have  $U \in \mathcal{T}_X$ . By Definition 1.3.1, there exists some  $V \in \mathcal{T}_Y$  such that  $U = V \cap X$ . However,  $U \subseteq X$ , so  $U = V \in \mathcal{T}_Y$ , which means that  $U$  is open in  $Y$ .  $\square$

We can do a similar manipulation with metric spaces and induce a metric on a subspace.

**Definition 1.3.4 ▶ Subspace Metric**

Let  $(X, d)$  be a metric space. The **subspace metric** of some  $A \subseteq X$  is the restriction of  $d$  to  $A$ , denoted as

$$d_A(x, y) = d(x, y), \quad \text{for all } x, y \in A.$$

Naturally, the following result is true:

**Proposition 1.3.5 ▶ Subspace Metric Induces Subspace Topology**

Let  $(X, d)$  be a metric space. The topology induced by the subspace metric  $d_A$  on some subspace  $A \subseteq X$  is the subspace topology on  $A$ .

*Proof.* Let  $\mathcal{T}_d$  and  $\mathcal{T}_{d_A}$  be topologies induced by  $d$  on  $X$  with basis  $\mathcal{B}_d$  and by  $d_A$  on  $A$  with basis  $\mathcal{B}_{d_A}$  respectively. Let  $\mathcal{T}_A$  be the subspace topology on  $A$  with basis  $\mathcal{B}_A$ . Take any  $B_A \in \mathcal{B}_A$ , then there exists  $B_r(x) \in \mathcal{B}_d$  such that  $B_A = B_r(x) \cap A$ . For any  $y \in B_A$ , consider the ball

$$B_{r'}(y) := \{z \in A : d_A(z, y) < r'\} \in \mathcal{B}_{d_A}.$$

Note that  $y \in B_{r'}(y)$ , so by Proposition 1.1.7, we have  $\mathcal{T}_A \subseteq \mathcal{T}_{d_A}$ . Conversely, for any  $B_r(x) \in \mathcal{B}_{d_A}$ , there exists some  $B_{r'}(x) \in \mathcal{B}_d$  such that  $B_r(x) \subseteq B_{r'}(x)$ . Notice that  $B_r(x) \subseteq A$ , so for any  $y \in B_r(x)$ , we have  $y \in B_{r'}(x) \cap A \in \mathcal{B}_A$ . Therefore, by Proposition 1.1.7,  $\mathcal{T}_{d_A} \subseteq \mathcal{T}_A$  and so  $\mathcal{T}_{d_A} = \mathcal{T}_A$ .  $\square$

## 1.4 Closed Sets

**Definition 1.4.1 ▶ Closed Set**

Let  $(X, \mathcal{T})$  be a topological space. A subset  $A \subseteq X$  is **closed** if  $X \setminus A \in \mathcal{T}$ .

A set might be open and closed simultaneously. For example, every set  $X$  is both open and

closed in itself.

**Proposition 1.4.2 ▶ Arbitrary Intersection and Finite Union of Closed Sets Are Closed**

Let  $(X, \mathcal{T})$  be a topological space, then

1. if  $\mathcal{G} := \{G_\alpha : \alpha \in I\}$  is a family of closed set in  $X$  with respect to some index set  $I$ , then  $\bigcap_{\alpha \in I} G_\alpha$  is closed in  $X$ ;
2. if  $G_1, G_2, \dots, G_n$  are closed in  $X$ , then  $\bigcup_{i=1}^n G_i$  is closed in  $X$ .

*Proof.* Notice that

$$X \setminus \bigcap_{\alpha \in I} G_\alpha = \bigcup_{\alpha \in I} X \setminus G_\alpha.$$

Since  $X \setminus G_\alpha$  is open in  $X$  for all  $\alpha \in I$ , this means that  $X \setminus \bigcap_{\alpha \in I} G_\alpha$  is open in  $X$ , and so  $\bigcap_{\alpha \in I} G_\alpha$  is closed in  $X$ . Notice also that

$$X \setminus \bigcup_{i=1}^n G_i = \bigcap_{i=1}^n X \setminus G_i.$$

By a similar argument  $\bigcup_{i=1}^n G_i$  is closed in  $X$ . □

The following proposition justifies the fact that intersecting a closed set with a subspace produces a closed set in that subspace:

**Proposition 1.4.3 ▶ Closed Sets in Subspace Topology**

Let  $Y \subseteq X$ , then  $A \subseteq Y$  is closed in  $Y$  if and only if there exists some closed set  $G \subseteq X$  such that  $A = G \cap Y$ .

*Proof.* Suppose that  $A$  is closed in  $Y$ , then  $Y \setminus A$  is open in  $Y$ . Therefore, there exists some open set  $B \subseteq X$  such that  $Y \setminus A = B \cap Y$ . Take  $G := X \setminus B$ , then

$$G \cap Y = A.$$

Suppose conversely that there exists some closed set  $G \subseteq X$  such that  $A = G \cap Y$ . Consider

$$Y \setminus (G \cap Y) = (X \setminus G) \cap Y.$$

Notice that  $X \setminus G$  is open in  $X$ , so  $Y \cap A$  is open in  $Y$ , i.e.,  $A$  is closed in  $Y$ . □

The following result is analogous to Proposition 1.3.3:

**Proposition 1.4.4 ▶ Superspace Preserves Closed Sets**

If  $Y \subseteq X$  is closed in  $X$  and  $A \subseteq Y$  is closed in  $Y$ , then  $A$  is closed in  $X$ .

*Proof.* Consider  $X \setminus A = X \setminus Y \cup Y \setminus A$ . Since  $Y$  is closed in  $X$ , this means that  $X \setminus Y$  is open in  $X$ . Note also that  $Y \setminus A$  is open in  $Y$ . By Proposition 1.3.3,  $Y \setminus A$  is open in  $X$ . Therefore,  $X \setminus A$  is open in  $X$  and so  $A$  is closed in  $X$ .  $\square$

Closed sets help define the notion “interior of a set”.

**Definition 1.4.5 ▶ Interior, Closure and Boundary**

Let  $(X, \mathcal{T})$  be a topological space and  $A \subseteq X$ . The **interior** of  $A$  is

$$\overset{\circ}{A} := \bigcup_{\substack{U \in \mathcal{T} \\ U \subseteq A}} A \cap U.$$

The **closure** of  $A$  is

$$\bar{A} := \bigcap_{\substack{X \setminus G \in \mathcal{T} \\ A \subseteq G}} G.$$

The **boundary** of  $A$  is

$$\partial A = \bar{A} \setminus \overset{\circ}{A}.$$

We interpret the above definition as follows:  $\overset{\circ}{A}$  is the union of all open sets contained by  $A$ . Moreover,  $\bar{A}$  is the smallest closed set in  $X$  which contains  $A$ . To see this, let  $C \subseteq X$  be any closed set in  $X$  containing  $A$ . Take any  $a \in \bar{A}$ , then since  $a$  is contained by all closed sets containing  $A$ , it is clear that  $a \in C$ , which implies that  $\bar{A} \subseteq C$ .

*Remark.*

1.  $\overset{\circ}{A} \subseteq A \subseteq \bar{A}$ .
2.  $\overset{\circ}{A} = A$  if and only if  $A$  is open in  $X$ .
3.  $\bar{A} = A$  if and only if  $A$  is closed in  $X$ .

The above results come in handy to prove the existence of sets which are neither open nor closed. Consider

$$A := \left\{ \frac{1}{n} : n \in \mathbb{N}^+ \right\}.$$

Observe that with respect to the Euclidean topology on  $\mathbb{R}$ , the only open subset of  $A$  is  $\emptyset$ , so  $\overset{\circ}{A} = \emptyset \neq A$ .

To find  $\bar{A}$  requires a bit of work. Intuitively, the boundary  $\partial A$  separates  $A$  from the rest of the space  $X$ . Therefore, it is natural that every open neighbourhood of a point  $a \in \partial A$  has to intersect with  $A$ .



Now, this means that we can shrink such an open neighbourhood indefinitely while maintaining a non-empty intersection. If this intersection contains more than the point  $a$  itself, then this analogously means that we can find points in  $A$  which are **arbitrarily close** to  $a$ .

#### Definition 1.4.6 ► Limit Point

Let  $(X, \mathcal{T})$  be a topological space. For any  $A \subseteq X$ , a point  $x \in X$  is a **limit point** of  $A$  if for every open set  $U \subseteq X$  containing  $x$ ,

$$(A \setminus \{x\}) \cap U \neq \emptyset.$$

Note that this definition is essentially saying that **every open neighbourhood of a limit point of a set  $A$  contains at least one other element in  $A$ .**

Intuitively,  $\bar{A}$  should contain all limit points of  $A$  because every point outside of  $\bar{A}$  is at some “distance” away from  $\partial A$ . Formally, for every  $a \in X \setminus \bar{A}$ , since  $X \setminus \bar{A}$  is open, we can always find some open ball  $B \subseteq X$  such that  $a \in B$ . Clearly,  $B \cap (A \setminus \{a\}) = \emptyset$  because  $A \subseteq \bar{A}$ .

We know that  $A \subseteq \bar{A}$ , so the above simple result motivates us to conclude that  $\bar{A}$  contains nothing else but  $A$  and all limit points of  $A$ .

#### Proposition 1.4.7 ► A Set with All Its Limit Points Is Its Closure

Let  $(X, \mathcal{T})$  be a topological space. For any  $A \subseteq X$ ,

1.  $x \in \bar{A}$  if and only if for any open set  $U \subseteq X$  containing  $x$ ,  $U \cap A \neq \emptyset$ ;
2. if  $A'$  is the set of limit points of  $A$ , then  $\bar{A} = A \cup A'$ .

*Proof.* We will prove the first statement by considering the contrapositive, i.e., we prove that  $x \in X \setminus \bar{A}$  if and only if there exists some open set  $U \subseteq X$  containing  $x$  such that  $U \cap A = \emptyset$ . The “if” direction is trivial because  $X \setminus \bar{A}$  is open in  $X$  such that  $(X \setminus \bar{A}) \cap A = \emptyset$ . Take  $U \subseteq X$  to be an open set in  $X$  with  $x \in U$  and  $U \cap A = \emptyset$ . This means that  $x \notin A \subseteq \bar{A}$ . Therefore,  $x \in X \setminus \bar{A}$ .

Take any  $a \in A'$ , then for every open set  $U \subseteq X$  with  $a \in U$ , we have

$$U \cap A \supseteq U \cap (A \setminus \{a\}) \neq \emptyset.$$

Therefore,  $A \cup A' \subseteq \bar{A}$ . Take any  $x \in \bar{A}$ , we shall prove that if  $x \notin A'$ , then  $x \in A$ . Since  $x$  is not a limit point of  $A$ , there exists some open set  $V \subseteq X$  containing  $x$  such that  $(A \setminus \{x\}) \cap V = \emptyset$ . However,  $x \in \bar{A}$  implies that  $V \cap A \neq \emptyset$ , so  $x \in A$ .  $\square$

Now let us rewind and consider our set

$$A := \left\{ \frac{1}{n} : n \in \mathbb{N}^+ \right\}$$

again. It is easy to verify that 0 is the only limit point of  $A$ , so by Proposition ??,

$$\bar{A} = \{0\} \cup \left\{ \frac{1}{n} : n \in \mathbb{N}^+ \right\} \neq A.$$

Therefore,  $A$  is neither open nor closed in  $\mathbb{R}$ . This also shows that  $\partial A \neq A'$  in general.

It is a good exercise for us to verify that  $\bar{A}$  is indeed closed here. We claim that

$$\mathbb{R} \setminus \bar{A} = (-\infty, 0) \cup (1, +\infty) \cup \bigcup_{n \in \mathbb{N}^+} \left( \frac{1}{n+1}, \frac{1}{n} \right).$$

Take any  $a \in (0, 1)$  such that  $a \neq \frac{1}{n}$  for all  $n \in \mathbb{N}^+$ , then there exists some  $n_a \in \mathbb{N}^+$  such that

$$a \in \left( \frac{1}{n_a + 1}, \frac{1}{n_a} \right),$$

and so the equality holds as desired.

## 1.5 Convergence

Recall that in Definition 1.4.6, a limit point of  $A$  is defined as a point  $a$  such that any open set containing  $a$  shares at least one other common point with  $A$ . Analogously, we may view such phenomenon as  $a$  having a “neighbour” in  $A$ .

### Definition 1.5.1 ► Neighbourhood

Let  $(X, \mathcal{T})$  be a topological space. An open set  $U \subseteq X$  is called a **neighbourhood** of some  $x \in X$  if  $x \in U$ .

Now let us generalise the idea of *convergence*. Intuitively, we think of the statement  $x_i \rightarrow x$  as the fact that  $x_i$  will become **arbitrarily close** to  $x$  in the long-run. Equivalently, this means that no matter how small a neighbourhood we choose for  $x$ , the “tail” of the  $x_i$ ’s will always fall in this neighbourhood.

### Definition 1.5.2 ► Convergence

A sequence  $\{x_i\}_{i=1}^{\infty}$  of points in a topological space  $(X, \mathcal{T})$  **converges** to  $x \in X$  if for any neighbourhood  $U \subseteq X$  containing  $x$ , there exists some  $N \in \mathbb{N}^+$  such that  $x_k \in U$  for all  $k > N$ , denoted as  $x_i \rightarrow x$ .  $x$  is said to be the **limit** of  $\{x_i\}_{i=1}^{\infty}$ .

It is important to distinguish between limit and limit points. For example, consider the constant sequence  $\{1\}_{i=1}^{\infty}$ . Clearly,  $x_i \rightarrow 1$  but one may check that 1 is not a limit point for this sequence.

In a metric space, we can make use of the metric to describe convergence in a more quantitative way.

### Theorem 1.5.3 ► Convergence in Metric Spaces

Let  $(X, d)$  be a metric space. A sequence  $\{x_i\}_{i=1}^{\infty}$  in  $X$  converges to  $x$  if and only if for every  $\epsilon > 0$ , there exists some  $N \in \mathbb{N}^+$  such that  $d(x_i, x) < \epsilon$  for all  $i > N$ .

*Proof.* Suppose that  $x_i \rightarrow x$  as  $i \rightarrow \infty$ . For all  $\epsilon > 0$ , take the open ball  $B_{\epsilon}(x) \subseteq X$ . Clearly,  $B_{\epsilon}(x)$  is a neighbourhood of  $x$ . By Definition 1.5.2, there exists some  $N \in \mathbb{N}^+$  such that  $x_i \in B_{\epsilon}(x)$  for all  $i > N$ , i.e.,  $d(x_i, x) < \epsilon$  for all  $i > N$ . Conversely, suppose that for every  $\epsilon > 0$ , there exists some  $N \in \mathbb{N}^+$  such that  $d(x_i, x) < \epsilon$  for all  $i > N$ . Let  $U \subseteq X$  be any neighbourhood containing  $x$ . Note that  $U$  is open in  $X$ , so by Theorem 1.1.4, there exists some open ball  $B_r(x) \subseteq U$  such that  $x \in B_r(x)$ . Therefore, there exists some  $M \in \mathbb{N}^+$  such that  $d(x_i, x) < r$ , i.e.,  $x_i \in B_r(x) \subseteq U$ , for all  $i > M$ . Therefore,  $x_i \rightarrow x$ .  $\square$

## 1.6 Continuity

We can also generalise the notion of *continuity*. Recall that in real analysis, a function  $f$  is continuous at  $a$  if  $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = f(a)$ . Therefore, if we fix any open neighbourhood  $U$  for  $a$ , we would expect the pre-image  $f^{-1}(U)$  to be open.

### Definition 1.6.1 ► Continuous Map

Let  $X$  and  $Y$  be topological spaces. A map  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  is **continuous** if for any open set  $U \subseteq Y$ , the pre-image  $f^{-1}(U)$  is open in  $X$ .

A map is continuous if and only if pre-images of open sets are open, but an open set may not necessarily have an open image under a continuous map. Here are 2 examples:

1.  $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$  defined by  $f(x) = e^{-|x|}$  is clearly continuous because

$$f^{-1}((a, b)) = \begin{cases} (-\ln b, -\ln a) & \text{if } -\ln b \geq 0 \\ (\ln a, -\ln a) & \text{if } -\ln b < 0 < -\ln a \\ \emptyset & \text{if } 0 \geq -\ln a \end{cases}$$

However,  $f(\mathbb{R}) = (0, 1]$  which is neither open nor closed.

2.  $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$  defined by

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } x \leq 0 \\ \frac{1}{x+1} & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

is continuous but  $f((-\infty, 0)) = \{1\}$  is closed and  $f([0, +\infty)) = (0, 1]$  is not closed.

Suppose  $\mathcal{T}_X$  and  $\mathcal{T}_Y$  are topologies on  $X$  and  $Y$  respectively. Definition 1.6.1 basically says that for all  $U \in \mathcal{T}_Y$ , we have  $f^{-1}(U) \in \mathcal{T}_X$ . The following proposition gives an equivalent definition for continuity in terms of sub-bases.

**Proposition 1.6.2 ► Equivalent Definition of Continuity**

*If  $\mathcal{S}$  is a sub-basis for a topology on some set  $Y$ , then for any topological space  $X$ , a map  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  is continuous if and only if  $f^{-1}(S)$  is open in  $X$  for any  $S \in \mathcal{S}$ .*

*Proof.* Suppose that  $f$  is continuous. Note that any  $S \in \mathcal{S}$  is open in  $Y$ , so by Definition 1.6.1,  $f^{-1}(S)$  is open in  $X$ . Suppose conversely that  $f^{-1}(S)$  is open in  $X$  for any  $S \in \mathcal{S}$ . Take any open set  $U \subseteq Y$ . By Propositions 1.3.2 and 1.1.4, there exists finite subsets  $\mathcal{U}_i \subseteq \mathcal{P}(\mathcal{S})$  where  $i \in I$  for some index set  $I$  such that

$$U = \bigcup_{i \in I} \left( \bigcap_{S \in \mathcal{U}_i} S \right).$$

Therefore,

$$f^{-1}(U) = \bigcup_{i \in I} \left( \bigcap_{S \in \mathcal{U}_i} f^{-1}(S) \right),$$

which is clearly open in  $X$ . Therefore,  $f$  is continuous. □

A trivial example for continuous maps is the *constant map*  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  such that  $f(x) = y_0$  for some fixed  $y_0 \in Y$ . This is simply because

$$f^{-1}(U) = \begin{cases} X & \text{if } y_0 \in U \\ \emptyset & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}.$$

The following result should be very intuitive:

**Proposition 1.6.3 ► Composition Preserves Continuity**

*Let  $X, Y, Z$  be topological spaces. If  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  and  $g : Y \rightarrow Z$  are continuous maps, then  $g \circ f$  is continuous.*

It is also clear that for any topological space  $X$ , the *inclusion map*  $f : A \rightarrow X$  for any  $A \subseteq X$  such that  $f(a) = a$  is continuous. Analogously, if  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  is continuous, then the restriction  $f|_A : A \rightarrow Y$  for any subspace  $A \subseteq X$  is also continuous.

### Proposition 1.6.4 ► Properties of Continuous Maps

Let  $X$  and  $Y$  be topological spaces. For any map  $f : X \rightarrow Y$ , the followings are equivalent:

1.  $f$  is continuous;
2. for all  $A \subseteq X$ ,  $f(\bar{A}) \subseteq \overline{f(A)}$ ;
3. for any closed set  $B \subseteq Y$ ,  $f^{-1}(B)$  is closed in  $X$ ;
4. for any  $x \in X$  and any open set  $V \subseteq Y$  with  $f(x) \in V$ , there exists an open set  $U \subseteq X$  such that  $x \in U$  and  $f(U) \subseteq V$ .

*Proof.* Suppose that  $f$  is continuous. We claim that  $\bar{A} \subseteq f^{-1}(\overline{f(A)})$ . Observe that  $X = f^{-1}(Y)$ , so

$$X \setminus f^{-1}(\overline{f(A)}) = f^{-1}(Y) \setminus f^{-1}(\overline{f(A)}) = f^{-1}(Y \setminus \overline{f(A)})$$

Since  $\overline{f(A)}$  is closed in  $Y$ , so by Definition 1.6.1, we know that  $f^{-1}(\overline{f(A)})$  is closed in  $X$ . For any  $a \in A$ , we have

$$f(a) \in f(A) \subseteq \overline{f(A)},$$

and so  $a \in f^{-1}(\overline{f(A)})$ . Recall that  $\bar{A}$  is the smallest closed set containing  $A$ , so  $\bar{A} \subseteq f^{-1}(\overline{f(A)})$  as desired. Therefore,  $f(\bar{A}) \subseteq \overline{f(A)}$ .

Suppose that  $f(\bar{A}) \subseteq \overline{f(A)}$  for any  $A \subseteq X$ . For any closed set  $B \subseteq Y$ , we have  $B = \bar{B}$ . Notice that

$$f(\overline{f^{-1}(B)}) \subseteq \overline{f(f^{-1}(B))} = B = f(f^{-1}(B)),$$

so  $\overline{f^{-1}(B)} \subseteq f^{-1}(B)$ . This implies that  $\overline{f^{-1}(B)} = f^{-1}(B)$ , and so  $f^{-1}(B)$  is closed in  $X$ .

Suppose that  $f^{-1}(B)$  is closed in  $X$  for any closed set  $B \subseteq Y$ . Take any  $x \in X$  and any open set  $V \subseteq Y$  with  $f(x) \in V$ . Since  $Y \setminus V$  is closed in  $Y$ ,  $f^{-1}(Y \setminus V) = X \setminus f^{-1}(V)$  is closed in  $X$ . Therefore,  $f^{-1}(V)$  is open in  $X$ . It is clear that  $x \in f^{-1}(V)$  and  $f(f^{-1}(V)) \subseteq V$ .

Suppose that for any  $x \in X$  and any open set  $V \subseteq Y$  with  $f(x) \in V$ , there exists an open set  $U \subseteq X$  such that  $x \in U$  and  $f(U) \subseteq V$ . For any open set  $V \subseteq Y$ , consider

$$f^{-1}(V) = \{x \in X : f(x) \in V\}.$$

For each  $x \in f^{-1}(V)$ , fix some open set  $U_x \subseteq X$  such that  $x \in U_x$  and  $f(U_x) \subseteq V$ . Notice that this means that  $U_x \subseteq f^{-1}(V)$ , and so

$$f^{-1}(V) = \bigcup_{x \in f^{-1}(V)} U_x$$

is open in  $X$ . Therefore,  $f$  is continuous. □

Next, we introduce a lemma which specifies a methodology to construct a continuous map from two different continuous maps.

#### Lemma 1.6.5 ▶ Pasting Lemma

Let  $X$  and  $Y$  be topological spaces such that  $X = A \cup B$  for some closed sets  $A$  and  $B$ . If  $f : A \rightarrow Y$  and  $g : B \rightarrow Y$  are continuous and  $f(x) = g(x)$  for all  $x \in A \cap B$ , then the function  $h : X \rightarrow Y$  defined by

$$h(x) = \begin{cases} f(x) & \text{if } x \in A \\ g(x) & \text{if } x \in B \end{cases}.$$

*Proof.* Let  $U \subseteq Y$  be any open set. Then it is clear that  $h^{-1}(U) = f^{-1}(U) \cup g^{-1}(U)$ . Since  $f$  and  $g$  are continuous, both  $f^{-1}(U)$  and  $g^{-1}(U)$  are open in  $X$ , so it follows that  $h^{-1}(U)$  is open in  $X$ . Therefore,  $h$  is continuous. □

Observe that the continuity of a function  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  actually depends on our choice of topologies on  $X$  and  $Y$ . On the other hand, this also means that every function  $f$  could induce a topology on  $X$  such that it is continuous.

#### Definition 1.6.6 ▶ Pull-Back Topology

Let  $\mathcal{T}_Y$  be a topology on  $Y$  and let  $f : X \rightarrow Y$ . The **pull-back topology** on  $X$  is defined as

$$\mathcal{T}_X := \{f^{-1}(U) : U \in \mathcal{T}_Y\}.$$

Note that the pull-back topology is the coarsest topology on  $X$  such that  $f$  is a continuous map. To verify this, let  $\mathcal{T}$  be any topology on  $X$  such that  $f$  is continuous. Take any  $T \in \mathcal{T}_X$ , then there exists some  $U \in \mathcal{T}_Y$  such that  $T = f^{-1}(U)$ . However, this means that  $T \in \mathcal{T}$ .

since  $f$  is continuous with respect to  $\mathcal{T}$ . This shows that  $\mathcal{T}_X \subseteq \mathcal{T}$ .

We can define continuity in metric spaces quantitatively as follows:

#### Definition 1.6.7 ► Continuity in Metric Spaces

Let  $(X, d_X)$  and  $(Y, d_Y)$  be metric spaces. A function  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  is **continuous** at a point  $x_0 \in X$  if for all  $\epsilon > 0$ , there exists some  $\delta > 0$  such that  $d_Y(f(x), f(y)) < \epsilon$  whenever  $d_X(x_0, y) < \delta$ .

One can show that Definition 1.6.1 aligns with this definition in metric spaces.

#### Proposition 1.6.8 ► Equivalence of Continuity in General Spaces

Let  $X$  be a topological space and  $(Y, d)$  be a metric space, then a map  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  is continuous if and only if for all  $\epsilon > 0$ , there exists some open neighbourhood  $U_x \subseteq X$  of all  $x \in X$  such that  $d(f(x), f(z)) < \epsilon$  for all  $z \in U_x$ .

*Proof.* Suppose that  $f$  is continuous. For any  $\epsilon > 0$  and any  $x \in X$ ,  $d(f(x))$ , take

$$U_x := f^{-1}(B_\epsilon(f(x)))$$

which is an open neighbourhood of  $x$  in  $X$ , then  $f(z) \in B_\epsilon(f(x))$  for all  $z \in U_x$ , and so  $d(f(x), f(z)) < \epsilon$ . Conversely, suppose that for all  $\epsilon > 0$ , there exists some open neighbourhood  $U_x \subseteq X$  of all  $x \in X$  such that  $d(f(x), f(z)) < \epsilon$  for all  $z \in U_x$ . Note that it suffices to prove that  $f^{-1}(B_\epsilon(y))$  is open for all  $y \in Y$  and all  $\epsilon > 0$ . Take any  $x \in f^{-1}(B_\epsilon(y))$ , then there exists some open neighbourhood  $U_x$  of  $x$  such that  $f(U_x) \subseteq B_\epsilon(y)$ , which implies that  $U_x \subseteq f^{-1}(B_\epsilon(y))$ . Therefore,

$$f^{-1}(B_\epsilon(y)) = \bigcup_{f(x) \in B_\epsilon(y)} U_x$$

which is open, and so  $f$  is continuous. □

Note that in the above definition, the radius of the open neighbourhood of  $x_0$  is dependent on the choice of  $x_0$ . By removing such dependence, we achieve a stronger version of continuity.

#### Definition 1.6.9 ► Uniform Continuity

Let  $(X, d_X)$  and  $(Y, d_Y)$  be metric spaces. A function  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  is **uniformly continuous** on  $X$  if for all  $\epsilon > 0$ , there exists some  $\delta > 0$  such that  $d_Y(f(x), f(y)) < \epsilon$  whenever  $d_X(x, y) < \delta$ .

Essentially, uniform continuity describes a phenomenon where the choice of  $\delta$  is irrelevant to the point in the function's domain.

We wish to use the following proposition to characterise all uniformly continuous functions:

**Proposition 1.6.10 ► Uniform Continuity Characterisation**

Let  $(X, d_X)$  and  $(Y, d_Y)$  be metric spaces. A function  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  is uniformly continuous if and only if for any sequences  $\{x_i\}_i^\infty$  and  $\{y_i\}_i^\infty$  in  $X$  such that  $\lim_{i \rightarrow \infty} d_X(x_i, y_i) = 0$ , we have  $\lim_{i \rightarrow \infty} d_Y(f(x_i), f(y_i)) = 0$ .

*Proof.* It suffices to prove the “if” direction only because the other direction is trivial from Definition 1.6.9. We shall consider the contrapositive statement. Suppose that there exist sequences  $\{x_i\}_i^\infty$  and  $\{y_i\}_i^\infty$  with  $\lim_{i \rightarrow \infty} d_X(x_i, y_i) = 0$  such that  $\lim_{i \rightarrow \infty} d_Y(f(x_i), f(y_i)) \neq 0$ , then for all  $\delta > 0$ , there exists some  $N \in \mathbb{N}^+$  such that  $d_X(x_i, y_i) < \delta$  for all  $i > N$ . However, notice that there exists some  $\epsilon > 0$  such that for all  $M \in \mathbb{N}^+$ , there exists some  $m > M$  with  $d_Y(f(x_m), f(y_m)) \geq \epsilon$ . This means that for any  $\epsilon > 0$ , we can find some  $k$  such that for all  $\delta > 0$ , we have  $d_X(x_k, y_k) < \delta$  but  $d_Y(f(x_k), f(y_k)) \geq \epsilon$ . By Definition 1.6.9, this implies that  $f$  is not uniformly continuous.  $\square$

Recall that previously, we have defined convergence for sequences. In particular, we can consider a sequence of functions. Note that, if we say that  $\{f_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$  converges to some function  $f$ , it might have two different interpretations. First, it might be the case where for any fixed  $x$ , we have  $f_n(x)$  converging to  $f(x)$ ; second it is also possible that the values of  $f_n$  and  $f$  becomes infinitesimally close when  $n$  is large over all possible  $x$ . We will formalise this distinction as follows:

**Definition 1.6.11 ► Point-wise and Uniform Convergence**

Let  $\{f_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$  be a sequence of maps from  $X$  to a metric space  $(Y, d)$ . We say that  $\{f_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$  **converges point-wisely** to  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  if for any  $x \in X$ ,  $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n(x) = f(x)$ , and that  $\{f_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$  **converges uniformly** to  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  if for any  $\epsilon > 0$ , there exists some  $N \in \mathbb{N}^+$  such that for all  $n \geq N$  and any  $x \in X$ ,  $d(f_n(x), f(x)) < \epsilon$ .

Clearly, uniform convergence implies point-wise convergence, but the converse is not true in general. In particular, consider  $f_n : [0, 1] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$  defined by  $f_n(x) = x^n$ . It is clear that

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n(x) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } x = 1 \\ 0 & \text{if } 0 \leq x < 1 \end{cases}.$$



Therefore,  $\{f_n\}_{n=1}^{\infty}$  converges point-wisely to  $f : [0, 1] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$  defined by

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } x = 1 \\ 0 & \text{if } 0 \leq x < 1 \end{cases}$$

but such convergence is not uniform. This example also shows that the limit of a point-wisely convergent sequence of continuous functions need not be continuous. In fact, we can show that the limit of a uniformly convergent sequence of continuous functions has to be continuous.

### Proposition 1.6.12 ► Uniform Convergence Implies Continuity

Let  $\{f_n\}_{n=1}^{\infty}$  be a sequence of maps from a metric space  $(X, d_X)$  to a metric space  $(Y, d_Y)$ . If  $\{f_n\}_{n=1}^{\infty}$  converges uniformly to  $f : X \rightarrow Y$ , then  $f$  is continuous.

*Proof.* Since  $\{f_n\}_{n=1}^{\infty}$  converges uniformly to  $f$ , for any  $x \in X$  and any  $\epsilon > 0$ , there exists some  $N \in \mathbb{N}^+$  such that  $d_Y(f_n(x), f(x)) < \frac{\epsilon}{3}$  for all  $n > N$ . Since  $f_n$  is continuous, for each  $x_0 \in X$  there exists some  $\delta > 0$  such that  $d_Y(f_n(x_0), f_n(x)) < \frac{\epsilon}{3}$  whenever  $d_X(x_0, x) < \delta$ . Notice that for all  $x \in X$  such that  $d_X(x_0, x) < \delta$ , we have

$$\begin{aligned} d_Y(f(x_0), f(x)) &\leq d_Y(f(x_0), f_n(x_0)) + d_Y(f_n(x_0), f_n(x)) + d_Y(f_n(x), f(x)) \\ &< \epsilon. \end{aligned}$$

Therefore,  $f$  is continuous on  $X$ . □

In other words, a function is continuous if there exists some sequence of continuous functions which converges to it uniformly.

## 1.7 Product Space

Since topological spaces are essentially sets, we can consider the product of multiple spaces.

### Definition 1.7.1 ► Projection

Let  $\{X_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$  be a sequence of non-empty sets, consider the product space  $\prod_{\alpha \in \Lambda} X_\alpha$ . The **projection** on the  $\beta$ -th factor is

$$\pi_{X_\beta} : \prod_{\alpha \in \Lambda} X_\alpha \rightarrow X_\beta$$

such that  $\pi_{X_\beta}(\mathbf{x}) = x_\beta$ .

Observe that essentially, the projection maps a vector in the product space to some element in the space representing the  $\beta$ -th dimension.

Note that for any  $\beta \in \Lambda$  and any  $U \subseteq X_\beta$ , we have

$$\pi_{X_\beta}^{-1}(U) = \left\{ \mathbf{x} \in \prod_{\alpha \in \Lambda} X_\alpha : x_\beta \in U \right\}.$$

In other words, the pre-image of projection for some set  $U$  is the set of all vectors in the product space whose  $\beta$ -th component is in  $U$ .

### Definition 1.7.2 ▶ Product Topology

Let  $\{(X_\alpha, \mathcal{T}_\alpha)\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$  be a sequence of non-empty topological spaces. The **product topology** is the topology generated by the sub-basis

$$\mathcal{S} := \left\{ \pi_{X_\alpha}^{-1}(U_\alpha) : \alpha \in \Lambda, U_\alpha \in \mathcal{T}_\alpha \right\}.$$

Intuitively, the product topology is formed by all vectors whose every component is contained in some open set in one of the topological spaces. This might seem similar to collecting all products formed taking one arbitrary open set from each space and multiplying them together.

### Definition 1.7.3 ▶ Box Topology

Let  $\{(X_\alpha, \mathcal{T}_\alpha)\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$  be a sequence of non-empty topological spaces. The **box topology** is the topology generated by the basis

$$\mathcal{B} := \left\{ \prod_{\alpha \in \Lambda} U_\alpha : U_\alpha \in \mathcal{T}_\alpha \right\}.$$

*Remark.* For finite product spaces, the product topology and the box topology are the same. However, they are different if the product is infinite.

We may check that the set  $\mathcal{B}$  in Definition 1.7.3 is indeed a basis. Take any  $\mathbf{x} \in \prod_{\alpha \in \Lambda} X_\alpha$ , then for each  $\alpha \in \Lambda$ , there exists some  $U_\alpha \in \mathcal{T}_\alpha$  such that  $x_\alpha \in U_\alpha$ , which implies that

$$\mathbf{x} \in \prod_{\alpha \in \Lambda} U_\alpha.$$

If  $V := \prod_{\alpha \in \Lambda} U_\alpha$  and  $U := \prod_{\alpha \in \Lambda} U_\alpha$  are such that  $\mathbf{x} \in U \cap V$ , then  $x_\alpha \in U_\alpha \cap V_\alpha$  for

each  $\alpha \in \Lambda$ . Clearly,  $U_\alpha \cap V_\alpha \in \mathcal{T}_\alpha$ , so we can take  $W := \prod_{\alpha \in \Lambda} U_\alpha \cap V_\alpha$  such that

$$x \in W \subseteq V \cap U.$$

We now make a claim that the projection from product topology is always continuous.

**Proposition 1.7.4 ▶ Product Topology Guarantees Continuous Projection**

*Let  $\{(X_\alpha, \mathcal{T}_\alpha)\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$  be a sequence of non-empty topological spaces. The product topology on  $\prod_{\alpha \in \Lambda} X_\alpha$  is the coarsest topology such that  $\pi_{X_\alpha}$  is continuous for all  $\alpha \in \Lambda$ .*

*Proof.* Let  $\mathcal{S}$  be the sub-basis generating the product topology and let  $U \subseteq X_\alpha$  be open, then  $\pi_{X_\alpha}^{-1}(U) \in \mathcal{S}$  and therefore is open. Therefore,  $\pi_{X_\alpha}$  is continuous with respect to the product topology.

Let  $\mathcal{T}$  be any topology on  $\prod_{\alpha \in \Lambda} X_\alpha$  such that  $\pi_{X_\alpha}$  is continuous, then for any open set  $U \in \mathcal{T}$ , the pre-image  $\pi_{X_\alpha}^{-1}(U) \in \mathcal{S}$  must be open, which implies that  $\mathcal{S} \subseteq \mathcal{T}$ . Notice that this is equivalent to  $\mathcal{T}$  containing

$$\mathcal{B} := \left\{ \bigcap_{\alpha \in \Lambda'} \pi_{X_\alpha}^{-1}(U_\alpha) : \Lambda' \subseteq \Lambda \text{ is finite, } U_\alpha \in \mathcal{T}_\alpha \right\}.$$

However,  $\mathcal{B}$  generates the product topology, which is the coarsest topology containing  $\mathcal{B}$ , so  $\mathcal{T}$  must be finer than the product topology.  $\square$

Analogously, we can construct continuous functions over the product space using continuous functions defined on each of the individual spaces.

**Proposition 1.7.5 ▶ Continuous of Functions over Product Spaces**

*Let  $\{(X_\alpha, \mathcal{T}_\alpha)\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$  be a sequence of non-empty topological spaces and let  $Y$  be a topological space. For any  $\alpha \in \Lambda$ , define  $f_\alpha : Y \rightarrow X_\alpha$ , then  $f : Y \rightarrow \prod_{\alpha \in \Lambda} X_\alpha$  defined by*

$$f(y) = (f_\alpha(y))_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$$

*is continuous if and only if  $f_\alpha$  is continuous for all  $\alpha \in \Lambda$ .*

*Proof.* Suppose that  $f$  is continuous. Notice that for all  $\alpha \in \Lambda$ ,

$$f_\alpha(y) = \pi_{X_\alpha}(f(y))$$

for all  $y \in Y$ . Therefore,  $f_\alpha = \pi_{X_\alpha} \circ f$ . By Proposition 1.7.4,  $\pi_{X_\alpha}$  is continuous, and so  $f_\alpha$  is continuous for all  $\alpha \in \Lambda$ .

Conversely, suppose that  $f_\alpha$  is continuous for all  $\alpha \in \Lambda$ . Notice that the basis for the product topology is given by

$$\mathcal{B} := \left\{ \bigcap_{\alpha \in \Lambda'} \pi_{X_\alpha}^{-1}(U_\alpha) : \Lambda' \subseteq \Lambda \text{ is finite, } U_\alpha \in \mathcal{T}_\alpha \right\}.$$

For any finite  $\Lambda' \subseteq \Lambda$ , we have

$$\begin{aligned} f^{-1}\left(\bigcap_{\alpha \in \Lambda'} \pi_{X_\alpha}^{-1}(U_\alpha)\right) &= \bigcap_{\alpha \in \Lambda'} f^{-1}(\pi_{X_\alpha}^{-1}(U_\alpha)) \\ &= \bigcap_{\alpha \in \Lambda'} (\pi_{X_\alpha} \circ f)^{-1}(U_\alpha) \\ &= \bigcap_{\alpha \in \Lambda'} f_\alpha^{-1}(U_\alpha), \end{aligned}$$

which is open. Therefore,  $f$  is continuous. □

Notice that it is important to equip the product space with the product topology. Let  $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{\mathbb{N}}$  such that  $f(x) = (x, x, \dots)$ . We claim that  $f$  is not continuous with respect to the box topology.

The following result should be common sense enough.

#### Corollary 1.7.6 ▶ Arithmetic of Continuous Functions

*Let  $X$  be a topological space and let  $f, g : X \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$  be continuous functions, then the functions  $f + g$ ,  $f - g$  and  $fg$  are continuous. If  $0 \notin g(X)$ , then  $\frac{f}{g}$  is continuous.*

Intuitively, the subspace topology on product space should be the product of subspace topologies.

#### Proposition 1.7.7 ▶ Subspace Topology on Product Spaces

*Let  $(X, \mathcal{T}_X)$  and  $(Y, \mathcal{T}_Y)$  be topological spaces. Let  $A \subseteq X$ ,  $B \subseteq Y$  and  $\mathcal{T}_{A \times B}$  be the subspace topology on  $A \times B$  induced by the product topology. If  $\mathcal{T}'_{A \times B}$  be the product topology induced by the subspace topologies on  $A$  and  $B$ , then  $\mathcal{T}_{A \times B} = \mathcal{T}'_{A \times B}$ .*

*Proof.* Let  $\mathcal{T}_A$  and  $\mathcal{T}_B$  be the subspace topologies on  $A$  and  $B$  respectively, then  $\mathcal{T}'_{A \times B}$  is generated by the basis

$$\mathcal{B}' := \{T_A \times T_B : T_A \in \mathcal{T}_A, T_B \in \mathcal{T}_B\}.$$

Let  $\mathcal{T}_{X \times Y}$  be the product topology for  $X \times Y$ , then  $\mathcal{T}_{X \times Y}$  is generated by

$$\mathcal{B}_{X \times Y} := \{U_X \times U_Y : U_X \in \mathcal{T}_X, U_Y \in \mathcal{T}_Y\}.$$

Therefore, by Proposition 1.3.2,  $\mathcal{T}_{A \times B}$  is generated by

$$\mathcal{B} := \{(U_X \times U_Y) \cap (A \times B) : U_X \in \mathcal{T}_X, U_Y \in \mathcal{T}_Y\}.$$

It is clear that  $\mathcal{B} = \mathcal{B}'$  (??). □

### Proposition 1.7.8 ► Standard Topology Decomposition on Euclidean Spaces

Let  $n \in \mathbb{Z}^+$  and  $n = \sum_{i=1}^k m_i$  with  $m_i \in \mathbb{Z}^+$  for  $i = 1, 2, \dots, k$ . Let  $\mathcal{T}_i$  be the standard topology on  $\mathbb{R}^{m_i}$  and  $\mathcal{T}$  be the product topology induced by the  $\mathcal{T}_i$ 's, then  $\mathcal{T}$  is the standard topology on  $\mathbb{R}^n$ .

*Proof.* Let  $\mathcal{B}_n$  be the standard basis generating the standard topology  $\mathcal{T}_n$  over  $\mathbb{R}^n$  for each  $n \in \mathbb{N}^+$ . Take any  $B_r^{(n)}(\mathbf{x}) \in \mathcal{B}_n$ . For any  $\mathbf{y} \in B_r^{(n)}(\mathbf{x})$ , define  $t = r - \|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{y}\|$  and consider, for each  $i = 1, 2, \dots, k$ ,

$$B_t^{(m_i)}(\pi_{\mathbb{R}^{m_i}}(\mathbf{y})) \in \mathcal{B}_{m_i} \subseteq \mathcal{T}_i$$

to be an open ball centred at the projection of  $\mathbf{y}$  to the  $m_i$ -th factor. Denote

$$B_t := \prod_{i=1}^k B_t^{(m_i)}(\pi_{\mathbb{R}^{m_i}}(\mathbf{y})).$$

Clearly,  $B_t$  is contained by the basis for the product topology induced by the  $\mathcal{T}_i$ 's. For any  $\mathbf{p} \in B_t$ , we have

$$\|\mathbf{p} - \mathbf{x}\| \leq \|\mathbf{p} - \mathbf{y}\| + \|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{y}\| < r.$$

Therefore,  $\mathbf{y} \in B_t \subseteq B_r^{(n)}(\mathbf{x})$ . By Proposition 1.1.7,  $\mathcal{T} \subseteq \mathcal{T}_n$ . Conversely, take an arbitrary  $U_i \in \mathcal{T}_i$  for each  $i = 1, 2, \dots, k$ . Notice that for any  $\mathbf{x} \in \prod_{i=1}^k U_i$ , there is some open ball  $B_{r_i}^{(m_i)}(\pi_{\mathbb{R}^{m_i}}(\mathbf{x})) \in \mathcal{B}_{m_i}$ , centred at the projection of  $\mathbf{x}$  to the  $m_i$ -th factor, such that  $B_{r_i}^{(m_i)}(\pi_{\mathbb{R}^{m_i}}(\mathbf{x})) \subseteq U_i$ . Take

$$r := \min_{1 \leq i \leq k} r_i$$

and consider the open ball  $B_r^{(n)}(\mathbf{x}) \in \mathcal{B}_n$ . For any  $\mathbf{y} \in B_r^{(n)}(\mathbf{x})$ , consider

$$\|\mathbf{y} - \mathbf{x}\| = \sum_{i=1}^k \left\| \pi_{\mathbb{R}^{m_i}}(\mathbf{y}) - \pi_{\mathbb{R}^{m_i}}(\mathbf{x}) \right\| < r \leq \min_{1 \leq i \leq k} r_i.$$

Therefore, for every positive integer  $i \leq k$ , we have

$$\left\| \pi_{\mathbb{R}^{m_i}}(\mathbf{y}) - \pi_{\mathbb{R}^{m_i}}(\mathbf{x}) \right\| < r_i,$$

which implies that  $\pi_{\mathbb{R}^{m_i}}(\mathbf{y}) \in B_{r_i}^{(m_i)}(\pi_{\mathbb{R}^{m_i}}(\mathbf{x})) \subseteq U_i$ . Therefore,  $\mathbf{y} \in \prod_{i=1}^k U_i$  and so  $\mathcal{T}_n \subseteq \mathcal{T}$  by Proposition 1.1.7. Therefore,  $\mathcal{T} = \mathcal{T}_n$ .  $\square$

### Definition 1.7.9 ▶ $L^p$ -Metric

Let  $(X_1, d_{X_1}), (X_2, d_{X_2}), \dots, (X_n, d_{X_n})$  be metric spaces, we define

$$d_1((x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n), (y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n)) := \sum_{i=1}^n d_{X_i}(x_i, y_i)$$

$$d_\infty((x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n), (y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n)) := \max_{1 \leq i \leq n} d_{X_i}(x_i, y_i).$$

### Proposition 1.7.10 ▶ Basis for Product Topology

Let  $\{(X_i, \mathcal{T}_i)\}_{i=1}^n$  be a sequence of topological spaces and let  $\mathcal{B}_i$  be the basis for  $\mathcal{T}_i$  for all  $i = 1, 2, \dots, n$ , then  $\prod_{i=1}^n \mathcal{B}_i$  is a basis for the product topology over  $\prod_{i=1}^n X_i$ .

### Proposition 1.7.11 ▶ Metric for Product Topology

Let  $\{(X_i, d_{X_i})\}_{i=1}^n$  be a sequence of topological spaces, then  $d_1$  and  $d_\infty$  both induce the product topology over  $\prod_{i=1}^n X_i$ .

### Proposition 1.7.12 ▶ $\rho$ -Metric Induces the Same Topology

Let  $(X, d)$  be a metric space and define  $\rho : X \times X \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$  by

$$\rho(x, y) := \frac{d(x, y)}{1 + d(x, y)},$$

then  $\rho$  is a metric on  $X$  and  $\text{diam}_\rho(X) < 1$ . Let  $\mathcal{T}_\rho$  and  $\mathcal{T}_d$  be the topologies on  $X$  induced by  $\rho$  and  $d$  respectively, then  $\mathcal{T}_\rho = \mathcal{T}_d$ .

*Proof.* We first show that  $\rho$  is a metric. The non-negativity and symmetry are obvious, so it suffices to prove the triangle inequality. Consider

$$f(t) = \frac{t}{1+t}.$$

One may check that  $f$  is an increasing concave function with  $f(0) = 0$ . Therefore,

$$\frac{b}{a+b}f(a+b) = \frac{a}{a+b}f(0) + \frac{b}{a+b}f(a+b) \leq f(b).$$

By symmetry,  $\frac{a}{a+b}f(a+b) \leq f(a)$ , and so  $f(a) + f(b) \geq f(a+b)$ . Therefore, for any  $x, y, z \in X$ ,

$$\begin{aligned} \rho(x, y) + \rho(y, z) &= f(d(x, y)) + f(d(y, z)) \\ &\geq f(d(x, y) + d(y, z)) \\ &\geq f(d(x, z)) \\ &= \rho(x, z). \end{aligned}$$

It is clear that  $\text{diam}_\rho(X) = \max_{(x,y) \in X^2} \rho(x, y) < 1$ . Notice that

$$\begin{aligned} 2\rho(x, y) &= \frac{2d(x, y)}{1 + d(x, y)} \\ &> d(x, y) \\ &> \rho(x, y) \end{aligned}$$

for all  $x, y \in X$ . Therefore,  $\mathcal{T}_d = \mathcal{T}_\rho$ . □

### Proposition 1.7.13 ► Product Topology on Infinite Product

Let  $\{(X, d_{X_i})\}_{i=1}^\infty$  be a sequence of metric spaces and define  $\rho_i : X_i \times X_i \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$  by

$$\rho_i(x, y) := \frac{d_{X_i}(x, y)}{1 + d_{X_i}(x, y)},$$

then  $d : \prod_{i=1}^\infty X_i \times \prod_{i=1}^\infty X_i \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$  defined by

$$d(x, y) := \sup \left\{ \frac{\rho_i(x_i, y_i)}{i} : i \in \mathbb{Z}^+ \right\}$$

is a metric inducing the product topology on  $\prod_{i=1}^\infty X_i$ .

*Proof.* Define  $\rho'_i = \frac{1}{i}\rho_i$ . Let  $\mathcal{B}_d$  be the basis induced by the metric  $d$  and  $\mathcal{B}_i$  be the basis induced by the metric  $\rho'_i$ . Take any  $B_r^d(\mathbf{x}) \in \mathcal{B}_d$ . For any  $\mathbf{y} \in B_r^d(\mathbf{x})$ , we have

$$\frac{\rho_i(x_i, y_i)}{i} \leq d(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) < r$$

for all  $i \in \mathbb{Z}^+$ . Therefore,  $\mathbf{y} \in B_r^{\rho'_i}$  and so  $B_r^d(\mathbf{x}) \subseteq \prod_{i=1}^{\infty} B_r^{\rho'_i}$ . For any  $\mathbf{x} \in \prod_{i=1}^{\infty} X_i$ , Notice that for any  $r > 0$ , there exists some  $N \in \mathbb{N}^+$  such that  $\frac{1}{i} < \frac{r}{2}$  for all  $i \geq N$ . By Proposition 1.7.12,  $\text{diam}(\rho_i) < 1$  for all  $i \in \mathbb{N}^+$ , so

$$\text{diam}\left(\frac{1}{i}\rho_i\right) = \frac{1}{i}\text{diam}(\rho_i) < r$$

whenever  $i \geq N$ . Therefore,  $B_r^{\rho'_i}(\mathbf{x}_i) = X_i$  for any  $\mathbf{x}_i \in X_i$ . This means that for any  $\mathbf{x} \in \prod_{i=1}^{\infty} X_i$ , we can write

$$B_r^d(\mathbf{x}) = \prod_{i=1}^{N-1} B_r^{\rho'_i}(\mathbf{x}_i)$$

□

## 1.8 Quotient Spaces

### Definition 1.8.1 ► Quotient Map

Let  $(X, \mathcal{T}_X)$  and  $(Y, \mathcal{T}_Y)$  be topological spaces. A surjective map  $p : X \rightarrow Y$  is a **quotient map** if for all  $V \subseteq Y$ ,  $V \in \mathcal{T}_Y$  if and only if  $p^{-1}(V) \subseteq X$  is open in  $X$ .

### Definition 1.8.2 ► Open and Closed Maps

A continuous map  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  is **open** if  $f(U)$  is open in  $Y$  for any open set  $U \subseteq X$ , and **closed** if  $f(V)$  is closed in  $Y$  for any closed set  $V \subseteq X$ .

*Remark.* If a surjective continuous map is open or closed, then it is a quotient map.

*Remark.* Quotient map, open map and closed map are all preserved under composition.

### Definition 1.8.3 ► Saturated Set

Let  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  be a surjective continuous map. A set  $A \subseteq X$  is **saturated** with respect to  $f$  if  $A = f^{-1}(S)$  for some  $S \subseteq Y$ .



Equivalently, this means that  $A = f^{-1}(f(A))$ .

### Proposition 1.8.4 ► Equivalent Definition for Quotient Maps

Let  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  be a surjective continuous map, then  $f$  is a quotient map if and only if  $f(A)$  is open (closed) in  $Y$  whenever  $A$  is a saturated open (closed) set with respect to  $f$  in  $X$ .

*Proof.* Take any saturated open set  $A \subseteq X$ , then  $A = f^{-1}(f(A))$ . By definition 1.8.1, since  $f^{-1}(f(A))$  is open,  $f(A)$  must be open in  $Y$ . Conversely, suppose that  $f(A)$  is open in  $Y$  for all saturated open set  $A \subseteq X$ . Let  $U \subseteq Y$  such that  $f^{-1}(U)$  is open in  $X$ . Notice that  $f^{-1}(U)$  is saturated. Therefore,  $f(f^{-1}(U)) = U$  is open in  $Y$ . Since  $f$  is surjective, it is a quotient map.  $\square$

### Proposition 1.8.5 ► Restriction of Quotient Map to Saturated Open Sets

If  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  is a continuous quotient map and  $A \subseteq X$  is a saturated open (closed) set with respect to  $f$ , then  $f|_A : A \rightarrow f(A)$  is a quotient map.

*Proof.* Let  $B \subseteq A$  be open and saturated with respect to  $f|_A$ , then  $B = f|_A^{-1}(f|_A(B))$ . Note that

$$f|_A(B) = f(B \cap A) = f(B)$$

for any  $B \subseteq A$ . Since  $B$  is open, by Proposition 1.8.4,  $f(B)$  is open. This implies that  $f|_A$  is a quotient map.  $\square$

### Proposition 1.8.6 ► Existence and Uniqueness of Quotient Topology

Let  $p : X \rightarrow A$  be surjective for some  $A \subseteq X$ , then there exists a unique topology  $\mathcal{T}_A$  such that  $p$  is a quotient map.

*Proof.* Define

$$\mathcal{T}_A := \{U \subseteq A : p^{-1}(U) \subseteq X \text{ is open}\}.$$

Observe that  $\emptyset, A \in \mathcal{T}_A$ . Note that for any index set  $\Lambda$  such that  $U_\alpha \in \mathcal{T}_A$  for all  $\alpha \in \Lambda$ ,

$$p^{-1}\left(\bigcup_{\alpha \in \Lambda} U_\alpha\right) = \bigcup_{\alpha \in \Lambda} p^{-1}(U_\alpha)$$

is open in  $X$ , so  $\bigcup_{\alpha \in \Lambda} U_\alpha \in \mathcal{T}_A$ . Similarly, one may check that  $\bigcup_{i=1}^n U_i \in \mathcal{T}_A$  for any  $n \in \mathbb{N}^+$  such that  $U_i \in \mathcal{T}_A$  for all  $i = 1, 2, \dots, n$ . Let  $\mathcal{T}'$  be any topology on  $A$  such that  $p$  is a quotient map. For any  $U \subseteq A$ , notice that  $U \in \mathcal{T}'$  if and only if  $p^{-1}(U) \subseteq X$  is open, i.e.,  $U \in \mathcal{T}'$  if and only if  $U \in \mathcal{T}_A$ . Therefore,  $\mathcal{T}' = \mathcal{T}_A$ , which means that  $\mathcal{T}_A$

is unique. □

### Definition 1.8.7 ► Quotient Space

Let  $X$  be a topological space and  $X^*$  be a partition of  $X$ . Let  $p : X \rightarrow X^*$  be a surjective map such that  $x \in p(x)$ . If  $\mathcal{T}^*$  is the quotient topology on  $X^*$ , then  $(X^*, \mathcal{T}^*)$  is the **quotient space** of  $X$ .

# Characterisation of Topological Spaces

In the previous chapter, we have discussed various fundamental concepts and properties of general topological spaces. In this chapter, the main focus is to characterise a number of topological spaces and categorise them into different types.

## 2.1 Separation

The *separation axioms* are a series of conditions imposed on topological spaces to better specify the notion of *disjoint* sets and *distinguishable* points. The motivation comes from the fact that knowing two points are distinct is not enough to differentiate one from the other in a topological space setting. For example, if  $x \neq y$  are *distinct* points in a topological space  $X$ , it is completely possible that every open set containing  $x$  also contains  $y$  and vice versa. Therefore, though unequal, there is no practical way to seclude  $x$  and  $y$  into disjoint regions topologically.

### 2.1.1 $T_1$ Spaces

$T_1$  spaces define properly the notion of separation in a topological sense. Before we introduce the full definition, it might be useful to consider a few preliminary notions.

#### Definition 2.1.1 ► Distinguishable Points

Two points  $x$  and  $y$  in a topological space are **topologically distinguishable** if one of them has an open neighbourhood which does not contain the other.

Note that being distinguishable alone is not sufficient to “separate” two points. Topologically speaking, we think of “separation” as the ability to seclude two objects into disjoint open regions.

#### Definition 2.1.2 ► Separated Points

Two points  $x$  and  $y$  in a topological space are **separated** if there exists open neighbourhoods  $U, V$  with  $x \in U$  and  $y \in V$  such that  $x \notin V$  and  $y \notin U$ .

In other words, two points are separated if each has an open neighbourhood which does not contain the other.

**Definition 2.1.3** ▶  $T_1$  Spaces

A topological space  $X$  is  $T_1$  if for any  $x, y \in X$  with  $x \neq y$ , there exists an open neighbourhood  $U \subseteq X$  such that  $x \in U$  but  $y \notin U$ .

It is clear then that a  $T_1$  space is a space in which every two distinct points are separated. Intuitively, if we fix any point  $x$  in a  $T_1$  space, then we can find some open sets to cover every point in the space other than  $x$ , which means that the isolated singleton  $\{x\}$  is closed.

**Proposition 2.1.4** ▶ Characterisation of  $T_1$  Spaces

A topological space  $X$  is  $T_1$  if and only if for all  $x \in X$ , the singleton set  $\{x\}$  is closed.

*Proof.* Suppose that  $X$  is  $T_1$  and take any  $x \in X$ . Let  $y \in X \setminus \{x\}$  be any point. Notice that there exists some open set  $V_y \subseteq X$  such that  $y \in V_y$  but  $x \notin V_y$ . Clearly,

$$X \setminus \{x\} = \bigcup_{y \in X \setminus \{x\}} V_y$$

is open, and so  $\{x\}$  is closed. Conversely, suppose that for all  $x \in X$ , the set  $\{x\}$  is closed. For any  $x \in X$ , take any  $y \in X$  with  $x \neq y$ . Notice that  $y \in X \setminus \{x\}$ , which is open. Therefore,  $X$  is  $T_1$ .  $\square$

**2.1.2 Hausdorff Spaces**

$T_1$  separation can be strengthened by requiring that distinct points have disjoint open neighbourhoods.

**Definition 2.1.5** ▶ Hausdorff Space

A topological space  $X$  is  $T_2$  or **Hausdorff** if for any  $x, y \in X$  with  $x \neq y$ , there exist open neighbourhoods  $U, V \subseteq X$  with  $x \in U$  and  $y \in V$  such that  $U \cap V = \emptyset$ .

It is easy to see that every Hausdorff space is  $T_1$ . We can check that every metric space is Hausdorff, as for any  $x \neq y$ , we can always take

$$r := \frac{1}{3}d(x, y),$$

and so the  $r$ -neighbourhoods of  $x$  and  $y$  will always be disjoint. It can also be easily checked that the discrete topology of any set is Hausdorff.

Therefore, the following result is easy to show:

**Proposition 2.1.6 ▶ Finite Sets in Metric Spaces Are Closed**

*Let  $X$  be a metric space, then all finite sets in  $X$  are closed.*

We shall prove that a finite co-finite topological space is always  $T_1$ .

**Proposition 2.1.7 ▶ Co-finite Topology Is  $T_1$** 

*Let  $X$  be a topological space with the co-finite topology  $\mathcal{T}$ , then  $X$  is  $T_1$ . If  $X$  is finite, then  $X$  is Hausdorff.*

*Proof.* Take any  $x, y \in X$  with  $x \neq y$ . Clearly,  $x \in X \setminus \{y\} \in \mathcal{T}$ . Therefore,  $X$  is  $T_1$ . If  $X$  is finite, then  $X \setminus \{y\}$  is finite and so  $\{y\} \in \mathcal{T}$ . Therefore,  $X$  is Hausdorff.

We shall also prove that if  $X$  is infinite, then  $X$  is not Hausdorff. Take any  $x \in X$  and  $U \in \mathcal{T}$  with  $x \in U$ , then  $X \setminus U$  is finite. For all  $y \in X$  with  $y \neq x$ , we have  $y \in X \setminus U$ . However, for all  $V \subseteq X \setminus U$ , we have  $V \notin \mathcal{T}$  because  $X \setminus V$  is infinite. Therefore,  $X$  is not Hausdorff.  $\square$

**2.1.3 Regular Spaces**

Suppose we fix a point  $x$  in a  $T_1$  space  $X$  and use an open set  $U \subseteq X$  to seclude  $x$  from the rest of the space, then  $X \setminus U$  is closed. In a more ideal situation, we may wish to aim for a secluding open set which is as small as possible.

**Definition 2.1.8 ▶ Regular Space**

A topological space  $X$  is **regular** or  $T_3$  if for any  $x \in X$  and any closed set  $B \in X$  with  $x \notin B$ , there exists disjoint open sets  $U, V \subseteq X$  with  $x \in U$  and  $B \subseteq V$ .

Notice that every regular space is  $T_1$ . Roughly speaking, if we seclude a point  $x$  in a  $T_1$  space  $X$  using an open set  $U$ , then the space is regular if we can “shrink”  $U$  into a smaller open set  $V$  and “expand”  $X \setminus U$  into a bigger set which is open.

**Proposition 2.1.9 ▶ Characterisation of Regular Spaces**

*A topological space  $X$  is regular if and only if for any  $x \in X$  and any open set  $U \subseteq X$  with  $x \in U$ , there exists an open set  $V \subseteq X$  with  $x \in V$  such that  $\overline{V} \subseteq U$ .*

*Proof.* Suppose that  $X$  is a regular space. Take any  $x \in X$  with any open set  $U \subseteq X$  containing  $x$ , then  $B := X \setminus U$  is a closed set not containing  $x$ . By Definition 2.1.8, there exists disjoint open sets  $V, W \subseteq X$  such that  $x \in V$  and  $B \subseteq W$ . This means

that

$$V \subseteq X \setminus W \subseteq X \setminus B = U.$$

Note that  $X \setminus W$  is closed, so  $\overline{V} \subseteq X \setminus W \subseteq U$ . □

## 2.1.4 Normal Spaces

Note that in a regular space, we are able to separate every point from an arbitrary closed set. A strengthened version of this property is that we can also separate every pair of disjoint closed sets in the space.

### Definition 2.1.10 ► Normal Space

A topological space  $X$  is **normal** or  $T_4$  if for any disjoint closed sets  $A, B \subseteq X$ , there exists disjoint open sets  $U, V \subseteq X$  such that  $A \subseteq U$  and  $B \subseteq V$ .

Notice that every normal space is  $T_1$ . In fact, a normal space is regular, a regular space is Hausdorff, and a Hausdorff space is  $T_1$ . We can characterise a normal space using the following result:

### Proposition 2.1.11 ► Characterisation of Normal Spaces

*A topological space  $X$  is normal if and only if for any closed set  $A \subseteq X$  and any open set  $U \subseteq X$  with  $A \subseteq U$ , there exists some open set  $V \subseteq X$  such that  $A \subseteq V$  and  $\overline{V} \subseteq U$ .*

*Proof.* Suppose that  $X$  is normal. Take any closed subset  $A \subseteq X$  and any open set  $U$  with  $A \subseteq U$ . Note that  $B := X \setminus U$  is closed and  $A \cap B = \emptyset$ , so there exists disjoint open sets  $W_A, W_B \subseteq X$  such that  $A \subseteq W_A$  and  $B \subseteq W_B$ . Take  $W := X \setminus W_B \subseteq X \setminus B = U$ , which is closed, then

$$W_A \subseteq X \setminus W_B = W \subseteq U.$$

Since  $W_A$  is open, this means that  $W_A \subseteq \overset{\circ}{W}$ . Take  $V := \overset{\circ}{W}$ , then

$$A \subseteq V \subseteq \overline{V} = W \subseteq U.$$

Conversely, suppose that for every closed  $A \subseteq X$  and every open  $U \subseteq X$  with  $A \subseteq U$ , there exists an open set  $V \subseteq X$  with  $A \subseteq V$  such that  $\overline{V} \subseteq U$ . Let  $A, B \subseteq X$  be any disjoint closed sets with  $A \cap B = \emptyset$  and take  $U := X \setminus B$ , then there exists some open set  $V \subseteq X$  with  $A \subseteq V$  and  $\overline{V} \subseteq U$ . Take  $W := X \setminus \overline{V}$  which is open, then  $B \subseteq W$  because  $B \cap \overline{V} \subseteq B \cap U = \emptyset$ . Therefore,  $X$  is normal. □

Recall that we have argued that every metric space is Hausdorff using a simple argument. In fact, we can directly prove a much stronger result that every metric space is normal.

**Proposition 2.1.12 ▶ Every Metrisable Space Is Normal**

*Every metrisable space is normal.*

Notice that we get regularity from a normal space for free. Now in the converse direction, we wish to investigate what is the condition which will lead to normality from a regular space.

**Proposition 2.1.13 ▶ Regular Spaces with Countable Bases Are Normal**

*A regular space with a countable basis is normal.*

## 2.2 Countability

### 2.2.1 Second Countable Spaces

Note that a topological space can be completely captured by its basis, so an important property of a topological space is the countability of its basis. In fact, this has been demonstrated in the previous section where a regular space becomes normal if it has a countable basis. Roughly speaking, the countability of the basis represents how “easy” it is to generate all open sets in the space using some fixed open sets.

**Definition 2.2.1 ▶ Second Countable Space**

A topological space  $X$  is **second countable** if it has a countable basis.

We introduce the following interesting result for second countable spaces:

**Proposition 2.2.2 ▶ Dense Countable Subspaces in Second Countable Spaces**

*If  $X$  is a second countable space, then there exists a countable subset  $A \subseteq X$  such that  $A$  is dense in  $X$ .*

### 2.2.2 First Countable Spaces

We can also discuss countability in a “local” context. Consider a random point  $x$  in some topological space. Suppose that  $U$  is an open set containing  $x$ . Intuitively, we can reduce  $U$  by taking an open subset of  $U$  containing  $x$ . We do this repeatedly until we find some minimal open subset of  $U$  containing  $x$ . Now, we can perform this operation to every open set containing  $x$  in the space and collect all these minimal open subsets. The countability of this collection offers a different criterion of space categorisation.

**Definition 2.2.3 ▶ Countable Basis**

Let  $X$  be a topological space. For all  $x \in X$ , a **countable basis of  $x$**  is a countable collection  $\mathcal{B}$  of open sets in  $X$  containing  $x$  such that for any open set  $Y \subseteq X$  containing  $x$ , there exists some  $B \in \mathcal{B}$  with  $B \subseteq Y$ .

The next definition is a “local” version of second countable spaces.

**Definition 2.2.4 ▶ First Countable Space**

A topological space  $X$  is **first countable** if every  $x \in X$  has a countable basis.

Intuitively, every second countable space is first countable. Suppose  $\mathcal{U}$  is a countable basis for the space, then for each point  $x$  in the space, we can simply take  $\{U \in \mathcal{U} : x \in U\}$  as a countable basis of  $x$ .

We claim that all metric spaces are first countable. Let  $X$  be a metric space and take any  $x \in X$ , then we can take its countable basis as

$$\mathcal{B} := \left\{ B_{\frac{1}{i}}(x) : i \in \mathbb{Z}^+ \right\}.$$

Consider some uncountable set  $Y$  equipped with the co-finite topology. For any  $y \in Y$ , suppose it has a countable basis  $\mathcal{B}$ . Note that in the co-finite topology, a set is open if and only if its complement is finite. Therefore, there exists some finite set  $F_i \subseteq Y$  such that there exists some  $B_i \in \mathcal{B}$  such that  $Y \setminus F_i = B_i$ . Notice that

$$Y \setminus \left( \{y\} \cup \bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} F_i \right) \neq \emptyset.$$

Take some  $z \in Y \setminus (\{y\} \cup \bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} F_i)$ , then  $U := Y \setminus \{z\}$  is open such that  $y \in U$ . Note that for all  $B_i \in \mathcal{B}$ , we have  $z \in B_i$ . This means that  $B_i \not\subseteq U$  for all  $i \in \mathbb{Z}^+$  because otherwise  $y \in U$  which is not possible. Therefore,  $\mathcal{B}$  is not a countable basis.

Suppose that  $x$  is a random point in a topological space with a countable basis  $\mathcal{B}$ . Fix any  $B \in \mathcal{B}$ , then  $x \in B$ . Notice that for any open set  $U$  containing  $x$ , it is not possible that  $U$  and  $B$  are disjoint. Therefore, there exists some open subset of  $B$  which contains  $x$ . This motivates the following natural question: can we always re-construct the countable basis such that for any pair of sets in the basis, one must be a subset of the other?



**Proposition 2.2.5 ▶ Construction of Countable Basis**

Let  $x \in X$  be a point with a countable basis  $\mathcal{B}$ , then there exists some countable basis  $\mathcal{B}'$  of  $x$  such that for any  $B_1, B_2 \in \mathcal{B}'$ , either  $B_1 \subseteq B_2$  or  $B_2 \subseteq B_1$ .

*Proof.* Take any  $B_1, B_2 \in \mathcal{B}$  such that  $B_1 \not\subseteq B_2$  and  $B_2 \not\subseteq B_1$ , then  $B_1 \cap B_2$  is open and  $x \in B_1 \cap B_2$ . Therefore, for any open set  $U$  containing  $B_2$ , clearly  $B_1 \cap B_2 \subseteq U$ . Therefore, we can repeat this process until we obtain a countable basis  $\mathcal{B}'$  such that for any  $B'_1, B'_2 \in \mathcal{B}'$ , we have either  $B'_1 \subseteq B'_2$  or  $B'_2 \subseteq B'_1$ .  $\square$

Based on this small proposition, we introduce the following result to help us identify spaces which are not first countable:

**Proposition 2.2.6 ▶ Closure Characterisation of First Countable Spaces**

Let  $X$  be a topological space and  $A \subseteq X$ . If there exists a sequence  $\{x_i\}_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+} \subseteq A$  such that  $x_i \rightarrow x$ , then  $x \in \bar{A}$ . The converse is true if  $X$  is first countable.

*Proof.* Suppose that there exists a sequence  $\{x_i\}_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+} \subseteq A$  such that  $x_i \rightarrow x$ . Notice that  $\bar{A} = A \cup A'$ , then it suffices to prove that  $x \notin A$  implies  $x \in A'$ . Suppose that  $x \notin A$ . Note that for any open set  $U \subseteq X$  such that  $x \in U$ , there exists some  $N \in \mathbb{N}$  such that  $x_n \in U$  for all  $n \geq N$ . In particular, this means that  $x_N \in U \cap (A \setminus \{x\})$ . Therefore,  $x$  is a limit point of  $A$ .

Conversely, suppose that  $x \in \bar{A}$ . Since  $X$  is first countable,  $x$  has some countable basis  $\mathcal{B} := \{B_i : i \in \mathbb{N}^+\}$ . By Proposition 2.2.5, we can assume that  $B_j \subseteq B_i$  whenever  $j \geq i$ . For each  $i \in \mathbb{N}^+$ , take

$$x_i \in \bigcap_{j=1}^i (B_j \cap A),$$

then  $\{x_i\}_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+}$  is a sequence in  $A$ . Let  $U$  be any open set containing  $x$ , then there exists some  $B_N \in \mathcal{B}$  such that  $x \in B_N \subseteq U$ . However, notice that for all  $i \geq N$ , we have  $x_i \in B_N \subseteq U$ , and so  $x_i \rightarrow x$ .  $\square$

An alternative proposition makes use of continuous maps:

**Proposition 2.2.7 ▶ Continuous Map Characterisation of First Countable Spaces**

Let  $X$  be a topological space. If  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  is continuous, then for any sequence  $\{x_i\}_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+}$  with  $x_i \rightarrow x$ , then  $f(x_i) \rightarrow f(x)$ . The converse is true if  $X$  is first countable.

*Proof.* Suppose that  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  is continuous. Let  $U \subseteq Y$  be an open set such that  $f(x) \in U$ , then  $x \in f^{-1}(U)$ , which is open. Note that there exists some  $N \in \mathbb{N}^+$  such that  $x_i \in f^{-1}(U)$  for all  $i \geq N$ , i.e.,  $f(x_i) \in U$  for all  $i \geq N$ . Therefore,  $f(x_i) \rightarrow f(x)$ .

Conversely, suppose that for any sequence  $\{x_i\}_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+}$  with  $x_i \rightarrow x$ , then  $f(x_i) \rightarrow f(x)$ . Take any  $A \subseteq X$  with  $x \in \bar{A}$ . Since  $X$  is first countable, by Proposition 2.2.6, there exists a sequence  $\{y_i\}_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+}$  in  $A$  such that  $y_i \rightarrow x$ . This means that  $f(y_i) \rightarrow f(x)$ . Since  $f(y_i) \in f(A)$ , this means that  $f(x) \in \overline{f(A)}$ , and so  $f(\bar{A}) \subseteq \overline{f(A)}$ . By Proposition 1.6.4,  $f$  is continuous.  $\square$

Lastly, we shall prove that both subspaces and product spaces preserve first and second countability.

### Proposition 2.2.8 ► Cartesian Product and Subspace Preserve Countability

*If  $X$  is first or second countable, then every subset  $A \subseteq X$  is first or second countable respectively. Furthermore, if  $Y$  is also first or second countable respectively, then  $X \times Y$  is first or second countable respectively.*

## 2.2.3 Lindelof Spaces

Now, based on some intuition, we see that certain spaces are “tight” in a sense that they have a clearly defined boundary, whereas some other spaces like  $\mathbb{R}$  can extend indefinitely. One idea to measure the “tightness” of a topological space is to consider the number of open sets needed to cover the entire space.

First, notice that given any topological space, we can always partition the space into a collection of open sets in the space.

### Definition 2.2.9 ► Open Cover

Let  $X$  be a topological space. An **open cover** is a collection of open sets  $\{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$  such that

$$\bigcup_{\alpha \in \Lambda} U_\alpha = X.$$

The first step here is to check if the space can be covered by countably many open sets.

**Definition 2.2.10 ▶ Lindelof Space**

A topological space  $X$  is **Lindelof** if every open cover of  $X$  contains a countable sub-cover.

Intuitively, a countable basis will induce a countable cover of the space.

**Proposition 2.2.11 ▶ Second Countable Spaces are Lindelof**

*Every second countable space  $X$  is Lindelof. The converse is true if  $X$  is metrisable.*

## 2.3 Compactness

We next introduce the notion of compact spaces, which are an attempt to generalise the notion of **closed and bounded** subsets in Euclidean spaces. The idea here is to define compactness as “having no missing end point”.

The intuition here is that if a space is not compact, i.e., it can extend indefinitely without an end, then there is a way to partition the space into infinitely many open subsets. On the other hand, if the space has a clearly defined boundary, then every possible partition must be finite.

**Definition 2.3.1 ▶ Compact Space**

Let  $X$  be a topological space.  $X$  is **compact** if every open cover of  $X$  contains a finite sub-cover for  $X$ .

*Remark.*  $Y \subseteq X$  is a compact subspace if and only if for every collection  $\mathcal{U}$  of open sets in  $Y$  such that  $Y \subseteq \bigcup_{U \in \mathcal{U}} U$ , there exists a finite sub-collection  $\mathcal{U}' \subseteq \mathcal{U}$  such that  $Y \subseteq \bigcup_{U \in \mathcal{U}'} U$ .

A compact space possesses many nice properties, one of which is with regard to the separability of the space. Recall that a normal space is regular and a regular space is Hausdorff, but to go in the converse direction is not so simple. However, for compact spaces, the converse direction will hold.

**Proposition 2.3.2 ▶ Separability of Compact Spaces**

*If  $X$  is a compact space, then  $X$  is normal if and only if it is regular, and it is regular if and only if it is Hausdorff.*

Note that previously we have shown that a closed set contains all of its limit points. Therefore, it is intuitive that if a closed set is contained by a compact space, this closed set should

be compact as well.

### Proposition 2.3.3 ► Closed Subspaces of Compact Spaces Are Compact

*Every closed subspace of a compact space is compact.*

*Proof.* Let  $X$  be a compact topological space and  $Y \subseteq X$  be a closed subspace. Let  $\{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$  be an open cover of  $Y$  with  $U_\alpha \subseteq X$  for all  $\alpha \in \Lambda$ , then  $\{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda} \cup \{X \setminus Y\}$  is an open cover for  $X$  because  $Y$  is closed. Since  $X$  is compact, we can find a finite sub-cover  $\mathcal{U} \subseteq \{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda} \cup \{X \setminus Y\}$ . Clearly,  $\mathcal{U} \setminus \{X \setminus Y\} \subseteq \{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$  is a finite sub-cover for  $Y$ . Therefore,  $Y$  is compact.  $\square$

One may be tempted to think that compact subspaces must be closed. However, this is not true in general. Consider  $X$  to be an infinite topological space equipped with the co-finite topology. For any  $Y \subseteq X$ , let  $\mathcal{U}$  be an open cover for  $Y$ . Take any  $U \in \mathcal{U}$ , then clearly  $Y \setminus U$  is finite. For each  $y \in Y \setminus U$ , there exists some  $U_y \in \mathcal{U}$  such that  $y \in U_y$ . Therefore,

$$\{U\} \cup \{U_y : y \in Y \setminus U\}$$

is a finite sub-cover for  $Y$ . Therefore, every subset of  $X$  is compact. However,  $Y \subseteq X$  is closed if and only if  $Y$  is finite.

### Proposition 2.3.4 ► Sets in Co-finite Topology Are Compact

*Let  $X$  be a topological space equipped with the co-finite topology, then for every  $U \subseteq X$ ,  $U$  is compact and  $U$  is closed if and only if  $U$  is finite.*

To conclude closed-ness from compactness, we require some additional assumptions.

### Proposition 2.3.5 ► Compact Subspaces of Hausdorff Spaces Are Closed

*Every compact subspace of a Hausdorff space is closed.*

*Proof.* Let  $X$  be a Hausdorff space and  $Y \subseteq X$  be a compact subspace. Let  $Z := X \setminus Y$ . Fix any  $z \in Z$ , then for each  $y \in Y$ , there exists disjoint open sets  $U_y, V_y \subseteq X$  such that  $z \in U_y$  and  $y \in V_y$ . Note that  $\{V_y : y \in Y\}$  is an open cover for  $Y$ , so there exists some finite subset  $F \subseteq Y$  such that  $\{V_y : y \in F\}$  is a finite sub-cover for  $Y$ . Take

$$U_z := \bigcap_{y \in F} U_y,$$

then  $U_z \cap V_y = \emptyset$  for all  $y \in F$ , and so  $U_z \cap Y = \emptyset$ . Note that  $U_z$  is an open neigh-

bourhood of  $z$ , so

$$Z = \bigcup_{z \in Z} U_z$$

is open in  $X$ . Therefore,  $Y = X \setminus Z$  is closed in  $X$ . □

Intuitively, a continuous map should send a compact set to a compact image because open sets, and hence open covers, are preserved by the map.

### Proposition 2.3.6 ▶ Continuous Map Induces Compact Image

*Let  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  be continuous, if  $X$  is compact, then  $f(X)$  is compact.*

*Proof.* Let  $\{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$  be an open cover for  $f(X)$ . Note that  $\{f^{-1}(U_\alpha)\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$  is an open cover for  $X$ . Since  $X$  is compact, there exists some finite  $I \subseteq \Lambda$  such that  $\{f^{-1}(U_i)\}_{i \in I}$  is a finite sub-cover for  $X$ . Clearly,  $\{U_i\}_{i \in I}$  is a finite sub-cover for  $f(X)$  and so  $f(X)$  is compact. □

Next, we consider the following observation: if  $X := (x_1, x_2)$  and  $Y := [y_1, y_2]$  are intervals in  $\mathbb{R}$ , let  $N := X \times Y$  be a rectangular region in  $\mathbb{R}^2$ . It is easy to see that if  $N$  contains a line segment  $((x_0, y_1), (x_0, y_2))$  for some  $x_0 \in X$ , then  $N$  contains a “tube”

$$T := (x_0 - \delta, x_0 + \delta) \times [y_1, y_2]$$

for some  $\delta > 0$ . This is generalised to the following lemma:

### Lemma 2.3.7 ▶ Tube Lemma

*Let  $X$  be a topological space and  $Y$  be a compact topological space. If  $N \subseteq X \times Y$  is an open set that contains  $\{(x_0, y) : y \in Y\}$ , then  $N$  contains  $W \times Y$  for some open  $W \subseteq X$  that contains  $x_0$ .*

*Proof.* Let  $\mathcal{B}$  be the basis generating the product topology. Define

$$\mathcal{A} := \{U \times V \in \mathcal{B} : U \times V \subseteq N, x_0 \in U\}.$$

Since  $N$  is open, for any  $y \in Y$ , there exists some  $U_y \times V_y \in \mathcal{B}$  such that

$$(x_0, y) \in U_y \times V_y \subseteq N.$$

Therefore,  $\mathcal{A}$  is an open cover for  $\{x_0\} \times Y$ . Note that  $\{x_0\} \times Y$  is compact because of

the compactness of  $Y$ . Therefore, there exists a finite sub-cover

$$\{U_1 \times V_1, \dots, U_n \times V_n\} \subseteq \mathcal{A}$$

of  $\{x_0\} \times Y$  where  $\bigcup_{i=1}^n V_i = Y$ . Take

$$W := \bigcap_{i=1}^n U_i \subseteq X,$$

then  $W$  is open and  $x_0 \in W$ . Since  $W \subseteq U_i$  for all  $i = 1, 2, \dots, n$ , we have

$$W \times Y = \bigcup_{i=1}^n (W \times V_i) \subseteq \bigcup_{i=1}^n (U_i \times V_i) \subseteq N.$$

□

Applying the Tube Lemma to Cartesian products yields the following result:

### Corollary 2.3.8 ► Compactness of Cartesian Product

*If  $X$  and  $Y$  are compact topological spaces, then  $X \times Y$  is compact.*

*Proof.* Let  $\mathcal{A}$  be an open cover of  $X \times Y$ , then  $\mathcal{A}$  is also an open cover of  $\{x\} \times Y$  for any  $x \in X$ . Since  $Y$  is compact, there exists some finite subset  $\mathcal{A}_x \subseteq \mathcal{A}$  such that

$$\{x\} \times Y \subseteq \bigcup_{A \in \mathcal{A}_x} A := N_x.$$

Note that  $N_x$  is open in  $X \times Y$ . By Lemma 2.3.7, there exists some open subset  $W_x \subseteq X$  such that  $x \in W_x$  and  $W_x \times Y \subseteq N_x$ . Clearly,  $\{W_x : x \in X\}$  is an open cover for  $X$ . Since  $X$  is compact, this means that there exists  $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n \in X$  such that

$$X = \bigcup_{i=1}^n W_{x_i}.$$

Take  $\mathcal{A}' := \bigcup_{i=1}^n \mathcal{A}_{x_i} \subseteq \mathcal{A}$  which is finite, then

$$\begin{aligned} X \times Y &\subseteq \bigcup_{i=1}^n (W_{x_i} \times Y) \\ &\subseteq \bigcup_{i=1}^n N_{x_i} \\ &= \bigcup_{i=1}^n \bigcup_{A \in \mathcal{A}_{x_i}} A \\ &= \bigcup_{A \in \mathcal{A}'} A. \end{aligned}$$

Therefore,  $\mathcal{A}'$  is a finite sub-cover for  $X \times Y$  and so  $X \times Y$  is compact.  $\square$

### Definition 2.3.9 ► Finite Intersection Property

Let  $X$  be some set. A collection  $\mathcal{G} \subseteq \mathcal{P}(X)$  has the **finite intersection property** if for any finite sub-collection  $\mathcal{G}' \subseteq \mathcal{G}$ , we have

$$\bigcap_{G \in \mathcal{G}'} G \neq \emptyset.$$

### Proposition 2.3.10 ► Characterisation of Compactness

Let  $X$  be a topological space, then  $X$  is compact if and only if for any collection of closed sets  $\mathcal{G} \subseteq \mathcal{P}(X)$  with the finite intersection property, we have

$$\bigcap_{G \in \mathcal{G}} G \neq \emptyset.$$

*Proof.* Suppose that for any collection  $\mathcal{G} \subseteq \mathcal{P}(X)$  of closed sets in  $X$  with the finite intersection property, we have  $\bigcap_{G \in \mathcal{G}} G \neq \emptyset$ . Let  $\mathcal{U}$  be an open cover of  $X$  and consider

$$\mathcal{G} := \{X \setminus U : U \in \mathcal{U}\}.$$

Note that  $\mathcal{G}$  is a collection of closed sets and

$$\bigcap_{G \in \mathcal{G}} G = \bigcap_{U \in \mathcal{U}} X \setminus U = X \setminus \bigcup_{U \in \mathcal{U}} U = \emptyset.$$

This implies that  $\mathcal{G}$  does not have the finite intersection property, i.e., there exists

open sets  $U_1, U_2, \dots, U_n \in \mathcal{U}$  such that

$$\bigcap_{i=1}^n X \setminus U_i = X \setminus \bigcup_{i=1}^n U_i = \emptyset.$$

This means that  $\{U_1, U_2, \dots, U_n\} \subseteq \mathcal{U}$  is a finite sub-cover for  $X$  and so  $X$  is compact. Conversely suppose  $X$  is compact and let  $\mathcal{G}$  be a collection of closed sets in  $X$  such that

$$\bigcap_{G \in \mathcal{G}} G = \emptyset.$$

Define

$$\mathcal{U} := \{X \setminus G : G \in \mathcal{G}\},$$

then clearly

$$\bigcup_{U \in \mathcal{U}} U = X \setminus \bigcap_{G \in \mathcal{G}} G = X,$$

so  $\mathcal{U}$  is an open cover of  $X$ . Since  $X$  is compact, there exists  $G_1, G_2, \dots, G_n \in \mathcal{G}$  such that

$$\bigcup_{i=1}^n X \setminus G_i = X \setminus \bigcap_{i=1}^n G_i = X.$$

Therefore,  $\mathcal{G}$  does not have the finite intersection property. □

An intuitive example of a collection with finite intersection property is **nested closed intervals** in Euclidean spaces. This can be generalised as the following corollary:

### Corollary 2.3.11 ► Intersection of Nested Closed Sets in Compact Spaces

Let  $X$  be a compact topological space and  $\{G_i\}_{i=1}^{\infty}$  be a sequence of closed sets in  $X$  such that  $G_{i+1} \subseteq G_i$  for all  $i \in \mathbb{N}^+$ , then

$$\bigcap_{i=1}^{\infty} G_i \neq \emptyset.$$

Lastly, we discuss the cardinality of compact spaces. Intuitively, a space is unlikely to be countable if its points are **dense**. To visualise the density of points, it might be helpful to think of **sparse points** as points around which there is some **empty space**.

### Definition 2.3.12 ► Isolated Point

A point  $x$  in a topological space  $X$  is **isolated** if  $\{x\}$  is open in  $X$ .

We can establish an analogous connection between the density of points distributed in a



space and the number of isolated points in the space. Naturally, a space contains “fewer” points if there are lots of isolated points.

### Proposition 2.3.13 ► Characterisation of Uncountable Topological Spaces

*Let  $X$  be a non-empty compact Hausdorff space. If  $X$  has no isolated point, then  $X$  is uncountable.*

*Proof.* Suppose on contrary that  $X$  is countable, then we can write

$$X := \{x_i : i \in I\}$$

for some  $I \subseteq \mathbb{N}^+$ . We consider the following lemma:

### Lemma 2.3.14 ► Non-isolated Points in Hausdorff Spaces

*Let  $X$  be a Hausdorff space. If  $U \subseteq X$  is open and non-empty and  $x \in X$  is not isolated, then there exists some open and non-empty subset  $V \subseteq U$  with  $x \notin \overline{V}$ .*

*Proof.* Note that  $U \setminus \{x\}$  is open and non-empty because otherwise  $\{x\}$  is open. Fix some  $y \in U \setminus \{x\}$ , then since  $X$  is Hausdorff, we can find some disjoint open sets  $W_x, W_y \subseteq X$  such that  $x \in W_x$  and  $y \in W_y$ . Take  $V := W_y \cap U \subseteq U$ , then  $V$  is non-empty and open. Note that  $X \setminus W_x$  is a closed set containing  $V$ , so  $\overline{V} \subseteq X \setminus W_x$ . This means that  $x \notin \overline{V}$ .  $\square$

By Lemma 2.3.14, there exists some open set  $V_1 \subseteq X$  such that  $x_1 \notin \overline{V_1}$ . For each  $i = 2, 3, \dots$ , we can find some open set  $V_i \subseteq V_{i-1}$  such that  $x_i \notin \overline{V_i}$ . By Corollary 2.3.11, we know that

$$\bigcap_{i \in I} \overline{V_i} \neq \emptyset.$$

However, for every  $x_i \in X$ , there exists some  $V_i$  such that  $x_i \notin \overline{V_i}$ , which is a contradiction.  $\square$

## 2.3.1 Limit Point Compact Spaces

Let us re-visit the motivation of compactness: a space with no missing end points (i.e., end points which are infinitely far away). Now, another way to interpret this statement is that if we fix an infinite subset in the space, then we can always find a limit point of the subset in the space.

**Definition 2.3.15 ▶ Limit Point Compactness**

A topological space  $X$  is **limit point compact** if every infinite subset of  $X$  has a limit point in  $X$ .

Note that it is equivalent to say that every subset of a limit point compact space which has no limit point in the space must be finite.

It is possible for a non-compact space to be limit point compact. However, a compact space must be limit point compact.

**Proposition 2.3.16 ▶ Compactness Implies Limit Point Compactness**

*Any compact topological space is limit point compact.*

*Proof.* Let  $X$  be a compact topological space and  $A \subseteq X$  be a subset without any limit point in  $X$ , then it suffices to prove that  $A$  is finite. Notice that  $A = \bar{A}$ , so  $A$  is closed in  $X$ . By Proposition 2.3.3,  $A$  is compact. For every  $a \in A$ , since  $a$  is not a limit point, by Definition 1.4.6 there exists some open set  $U_a \subseteq X$  with  $a \in U_a$  but

$$(A \setminus \{a\}) \cap U_a = \emptyset.$$

Clearly, this means that  $U_a \cap A = \{a\}$ . Therefore,  $\{a\}$  is open in  $A$ . This means that

$$\mathcal{A} := \{\{a\} : a \in A\}$$

is an open cover of  $A$ . Since  $A$  is compact, there exists  $a_1, a_2, \dots, a_n \in A$  such that

$$A \subseteq \bigcup_{i=1}^n \{a_i\},$$

and so  $A$  is finite. □

**2.3.2 Sequentially Compact Spaces**

We can further strengthen the condition by changing “existence of limit points” into convergence.

**Definition 2.3.17 ▶ Sequential Compactness**

A topological space  $X$  is **sequentially compact** if every sequence in  $X$  has a convergent subsequence.

Intuitively, sequential compactness should be a stronger result than limit point compact-

ness because not every limit point is the limit of some sequence.

**Proposition 2.3.18 ▶ Sequential Compactness Implies Limit Point Compactness**

*Any sequentially compact topological space is limit point compact, but the converse is not true.*

*Proof.* Let  $X$  be sequentially compact and let  $A \subseteq X$  be an infinite subset. Note that there exists a sequence  $\{a_n\}_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$  in  $A$ , and so we can find a convergent subsequence  $\{a_{n_i}\}_{i \in \mathbb{N}}$  such that  $\lim_{i \rightarrow \infty} a_{n_i} = a \in X$ . It is clear that  $a$  is a limit point of  $A$  and so  $A$  is limit point compact.  $\square$

### 2.3.3 Totally Bounded Spaces

Suppose we construct an open cover for a space  $X$ , then intuitively, we could use some open sets which are “big” enough to cover the space, such that all the “small” subsets of the space can be contained by some single open set in the cover.

**Definition 2.3.19 ▶ Lebesgue Number**

Let  $\mathcal{U}$  be an open cover for a metric space  $X$ , then  $\delta > 0$  is called a **Lebesgue number** for  $\mathcal{U}$  if for all  $S \subseteq X$  with  $\text{diam}(S) < \delta$ , there exists some  $U \in \mathcal{U}$  such that  $S \subseteq U$ .

The existence of Lebesgue number is not guaranteed in general. However, it can be shown that Lebesgue number always exists for sequentially compact spaces.

**Proposition 2.3.20 ▶ Sequentially Compact Spaces Guarantee Lebesgue Number**

*Every open cover of a sequentially compact metric space has a Lebesgue number.*

*Proof.* Let  $X$  be sequentially compact. Suppose on contrary that there exists some open cover  $\mathcal{U}$  of  $X$  without a Lebesgue number, then for all  $n \in \mathbb{N}^+$ , there exists some  $S_n \subseteq X$  such that  $\text{diam}(S_n) < \frac{1}{n}$ . For each  $n \in \mathbb{N}^+$ , pick some  $x_n \in S_n$  to form a sequence, then this sequence has a convergent subsequence  $\{x_{n_i}\}_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+}$ . Let  $\lim_{i \rightarrow \infty} x_{n_i} = x$  and  $x \in U$  for some  $U \in \mathcal{U}$ , then there exists some  $\epsilon > 0$  such that  $B_\epsilon(x) \subseteq U$ . Note that there exists some  $N \in \mathbb{N}^+$  such that  $\frac{1}{N} < \frac{\epsilon}{2}$  and  $x_{n_i} \in B_{\frac{\epsilon}{2}}(x)$  for all  $i > N$ . Note that for all  $i > N$ , we have  $n_i \geq i > N$ , so

$$\text{diam}(S_{n_i}) < \frac{1}{n_i} < \frac{1}{N} < \frac{\epsilon}{2}.$$

Therefore,

$$S_{n_i} \subseteq B_{\frac{\epsilon}{2}}(x_{n_i}) \subseteq B_\epsilon(x) \subseteq U,$$

which is a contradiction. □

Suppose that we have constructed an open cover with a Lebesgue number  $\delta$ . Clearly, we can partition any space into subsets with diameter strictly less than  $\delta$ . This means that for each of the subset, we can first fix some  $U$  containing it, and find an open ball containing  $U$  in the space. In a more ideal case, such open balls will have their radius upper-bounded by an arbitrarily small number. Intuitively, this means that we will be able to cover the space with balls which are “small” enough.

### Definition 2.3.21 ► Totally Bounded Space

A metric space  $X$  is **totally bounded** if for all  $\epsilon > 0$ , there exists a finite cover of  $X$  by open balls of radius  $\epsilon$ .

Previously, we have seen that sequential compactness is closely linked to the existence of Lebesgue numbers. Therefore, it is not so surprising that sequential compactness leads to total boundedness.

### Proposition 2.3.22 ► Sequential Compactness Implies Total Boundedness

*Every sequentially compact metrisable topological space is totally bounded.*

*Proof.* We shall prove the contrapositive. Suppose that  $X$  is a metric that is not totally bounded, then there exists some  $\epsilon > 0$  such that  $X$  cannot be covered with open  $\epsilon$ -balls. This means that for any  $n \in \mathbb{N}$  and any  $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n \in X$ ,

$$X \setminus \bigcup_{i=1}^n B_{\epsilon}(x_i) \neq \emptyset.$$

Now, fix some  $x_1 \in X$  and for each  $i = 2, 3, \dots$ , pick some

$$x_i \in X \setminus \bigcup_{j=1}^i B_{\epsilon}(x_j),$$

then  $\{x_i\}_{i \in \mathbb{N}^+}$  is a sequence in  $X$ . Note that for any  $i \neq j$ , we have  $x_j \notin B_{\epsilon}(x_i)$  and so for all  $x \in X$ , the open ball  $B_{\frac{\epsilon}{2}}(x)$  contains at most one of  $x_1, x_2, \dots$ . Therefore, the sequence contains no convergent subsequence and so  $X$  is not sequentially compact. □

A nice thing about Propositions 2.3.20 and 2.3.22 is that they apply to any compact metric space in general, which is a result of the following equivalence:

**Proposition 2.3.23 ► Compactness of Metrisable Spaces**

If  $X$  is a metrisable topological space, then the followings are equivalent:

1.  $X$  is compact;
2.  $X$  is limit point compact;
3.  $X$  is sequentially compact.

*Proof.* (1)  $\implies$  (2) is by Proposition 2.3.16. Now, suppose  $X$  is limit point compact and let  $\{x_i\}_{i \in \mathbb{N}}$  be any sequence in  $X$ . Define

$$A := \{x_i : i \in \mathbb{N}\}.$$

If  $A$  is finite, then there exists some  $x_k$  which appears countably infinite times in the sequence, and so  $\{x_k\}_{i \in \mathbb{N}}$  is a convergent subsequence. If  $A$  is infinite, then it has a limit point  $x$ . Since  $X$  is a metric space, it is first countable and  $T_1$ . Fix a countable basis  $\mathcal{B} := \{B_i : i \in \mathbb{N}^+\}$  for  $x$  such that  $B_{i+1} \subseteq B_i$  for all  $i \in \mathbb{N}^+$ , then

$$B_i \cap (A \setminus \{x\}) \neq \emptyset.$$

We claim that  $B_i \cap (A \setminus \{x\})$  is infinite. Suppose on contrary that it is finite, □

By exploiting this equivalence in metric spaces, we can obtain the following result:

**Proposition 2.3.24 ► Compact Spaces Induce Uniform Continuity**

Let  $(X, d_X)$  and  $(Y, d_Y)$  be metric spaces and  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  be continuous. If  $X$  is compact, then  $f$  is uniformly continuous.

An intuition regarding totally bounded spaces is that: since we can cover the entire space with finitely many balls, then the “size” of the space should not be too large.

**Proposition 2.3.25 ► Totally Bounded Spaces Have Finite Diameter**

If a metric space  $X$  is totally bounded, then  $\text{diam}(X)$  is finite.

*Proof.* Fix some  $\epsilon > 0$ , then we can find a finite cover with open  $\epsilon$ -balls  $\{B_1, B_2, \dots, B_k\}$  for  $X$ . For each  $i = 1, 2, \dots, k$ , pick some  $x_i \in B_i$  and define

$$M := \max\{d(x_i, x_j) : i, j = 1, 2, \dots, k\}.$$

For all  $x, y \in X$ , there exist  $B_i, B_j$  with  $x \in B_i$  and  $y \in B_j$ . Therefore,

$$d(x, y) \leq d(x, x_i) + d(x_i, x_j) + d(x_j, y) \leq M + 2\epsilon.$$

Therefore,  $\text{diam}(X) \leq M + 2\epsilon$  is finite. □

Total boundedness has the following useful properties:

### Proposition 2.3.26 ▶ Properties of Total Boundedness

1. If  $(X, d)$  is a metric space and  $\rho(x, y) = \frac{d(x, y)}{1 + d(x, y)}$ , then  $(X, \rho)$  is totally bounded if and only if  $(X, d)$  is totally bounded.
2. If  $(X, d)$  and  $(X', d')$  are bi-Lipschitz, i.e., there exists some  $A > 1$  such that

$$\frac{1}{A}d(x, y) < d'(x, y) < Ad(x, y),$$

then  $(X, d)$  is totally bounded if and only if  $(X', d')$  is totally bounded.

3. Every subspace  $X$  of  $(\mathbb{R}^n, \ell_p)$  is totally bounded if and only if  $X$  is bounded.

## 2.3.4 Complete Spaces

In elementary real analysis, we examine the notion of convergence with Cauchy sequences. Recall that in  $\mathbb{R}^n$ , every Cauchy sequence is convergent. However, in general metric spaces, this might not be the case. We now generalise this idea to all metric spaces.

### Definition 2.3.27 ▶ Complete Space

A metric space  $X$  is **complete** if every Cauchy sequence in  $X$  is convergent.

To characterise a complete metric space, it is useful to examine the conditions under which a Cauchy sequence is convergent.

### Proposition 2.3.28 ▶ Convergence of Cauchy Sequences

*A Cauchy sequence converges if and only if it has a convergent subsequence.*

Note that whether a sequence is Cauchy depends on the metric we choose to equip the space with. The following result shows an important connection between Cauchy sequences and bi-Lipschitz spaces.

### Proposition 2.3.29 ▶ Bi-Lipschitz Spaces Preserve Cauchy Sequences

*If  $(X, d)$  and  $(X', d')$  are bi-Lipschitz, then a sequence is Cauchy in  $(X, d)$  if and only if it is Cauchy in  $(X', d')$ .*

Using these concepts, we shall re-visit the Euclidean space  $\mathbb{R}^n$ . First, let us argue that  $\mathbb{R}^n$  is complete with respect to the  $\ell_p$ -metric for  $p \geq 1$ .

Take any Cauchy sequence  $\{x_n\}_{n \in \mathbb{N}^+}$  in  $\mathbb{R}^n$ . It is useful to prove that every Cauchy sequence must be bounded.

**Proposition 2.3.30 ▶ Every Cauchy Sequence Is Bounded**

*If  $\{x_n\}_{n \in \mathbb{N}^+}$  is a Cauchy sequence in  $(X, d)$ , then there exists some  $M > 0$  such that for all  $n \in \mathbb{N}^+$ , we have  $d(x_n, 0) \leq M$ .*

With this result, it is easy to see that for all  $n \in \mathbb{N}^+$ , we have  $x_n \in \overline{B_M(0)}$  for some  $M > 0$ . Note that  $\overline{B_M(0)}$  is a compact ball in  $\mathbb{R}^n$  and so it must be sequentially compact by Proposition 2.3.23. Therefore,  $\{x_n\}_{n \in \mathbb{N}^+}$  has a convergent subsequence and so it is convergent by Proposition 2.3.28. Therefore,  $\mathbb{R}^n$  is indeed complete with respect to the  $\ell_p$ -metric for  $p \geq 1$ .

However, if we restrict the standard metric to  $\mathbb{Q}$ , then  $\mathbb{Q}$  is not complete because we can find a Cauchy sequence in  $\mathbb{Q}$  which converges to some  $x \in \mathbb{Q}^c$ .

Lastly, we propose a more complex example:

**Proposition 2.3.31 ▶ Completeness of Infinite Product Spaces**

*Let  $d$  be the standard metric on  $\mathbb{R}$  and define  $\rho$  to be a metric on  $\mathbb{R}$  by*

$$\rho(x, y) = \frac{d(x, y)}{1 + d(x, y)}.$$

*Define  $D : \mathbb{R}^\omega \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$  to be a metric by*

$$D(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) = \sup \left\{ \frac{\rho(\pi_k(\mathbf{x}), \pi_k(\mathbf{y}))}{k} : k \in \mathbb{Z}^+ \right\},$$

*then  $(\mathbb{R}^\omega, D)$  is complete.*

Another thing we wish to investigate is whether completeness can be inherited through subspaces. It turns out that we only require some small additional condition to make this work.

**Proposition 2.3.32 ▶ Closed Subspaces Preserve Completeness**

*A subspace of a complete metric space is complete if and only if it is closed.*

In an elementary level, something we commonly say is that an interval is compact if and only if it is closed and bounded. By now, it should become clear that completeness is a generalisation for closed-ness, and that totally boundedness is a generalisation for boundedness.

**Proposition 2.3.33 ▶ Characterisation of Compact Spaces**

*A metric space  $(X, d)$  is compact if and only if it is complete and totally bounded.*

With this very sophisticated result, we can now turn back and prove something which appears to be very naïve (but surprisingly hard to prove):

**Corollary 2.3.34 ▶ Heine-Borel Theorem**

*A subspace  $G \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$  is compact if and only if it is closed and bounded.*

**2.3.5 Locally Compact Spaces**

In the previous section in the study of compactness, we have been treating a space as a single entity. However, another perspective is to view the space as a collection of many singleton “points”. This motivates us to define compactness point-wise.

**Definition 2.3.35 ▶ Local Compactness**

A topological space  $X$  is **locally compact** at  $x \in X$  if there exists a compact set  $C \subseteq X$  and an open set  $U \subseteq X$  such that  $x \in U \subseteq C$ . We say that  $X$  is locally compact if it is locally compact at every  $x \in X$ .

An interpretation of local compactness at a point  $x$  is that we can find a strictly wider compact neighbourhood that contains  $x$ .

It is easy to see that  $\mathbb{R}^n$  is locally compact but  $\mathbb{Q}$  is not locally compact because  $\mathbb{Q}^c$  is dense.

We can also show that  $\mathbb{R}^\omega$  with the product topology is not locally compact.

Is there any connection between locally compact spaces and compact spaces? In fact, by going one step further, we may wish to find a way to transform a general space into a compact Hausdorff space. Such a transformation should preserve the structure of the pre-image space. In the context of topological spaces, this means that open spaces should be preserved.

**Definition 2.3.36 ▶ Homeomorphism**

A function  $h: X \rightarrow Y$  between topological spaces is a **homeomorphism** if it is a bijective open map.

In other words, a bijection  $h$  between topological spaces is a homeomorphism if both  $h$  and  $h^{-1}$  are continuous. Sometimes,  $h$  is known as *bi-continuous*. Roughly speaking, a homeomorphism is a reversible deformation such that open sets are still open before and



after the deformation. In particular, a homeomorphism can be used to construct a compact Hausdorff space from a general topological space.

### Definition 2.3.37 ► Compactification

Let  $X$  be a topological space and  $Y$  be a compact Hausdorff space, then  $Y$  is a **compactification** of  $X$  if there exists a map  $h : X \rightarrow Y$  which is homeomorphic onto  $h(X)$  such that  $\overline{h(X)} = Y$ . If  $Y \setminus h(X)$  is a singleton set, then  $Y$  is a **one-point compactification** of  $X$ .

In Hausdorff spaces, it is then relatively easy to construct a compactification.

### Proposition 2.3.38 ► Compactification of Hausdorff Spaces

*Let  $X$  be a Hausdorff space and  $Y$  be a compact Hausdorff space. If a map  $h_Y : X \rightarrow Y$  is homeomorphic onto  $h_Y(X)$  and  $Y \setminus h_Y(X)$  is a singleton set, then  $Y$  is a compactification of  $X$ .*

It is worth noting that compactification may not be unique in general. However, for locally compact Hausdorff spaces, a compactification is always guaranteed.

### Proposition 2.3.39 ► Characterisation of Locally Compact Hausdorff Spaces

*A topological space  $X$  is locally compact and Hausdorff if and only if there exists a compact Hausdorff space  $Y$  and a map  $h_Y : X \rightarrow Y$  such that  $h_Y$  is homeomorphic onto  $h_Y(X)$  and  $Y \setminus h_Y(X)$  is a singleton set.*

Clearly, this compactification is always a one-point compactification. Furthermore, we can show that such a compactification is unique up to a homeomorphism.

### Theorem 2.3.40 ► Existence and Uniqueness of One-Point Compactification

*Every locally compact and Hausdorff space  $X$  has a one-point compactification  $Y$  with respect to a map  $h_Y$ . Furthermore, if  $Y'$  is another one-point compactification of  $X$  with respect to the map  $h_{Y'}$ , then there exists a homeomorphism  $f : Y \rightarrow Y'$  such that*

$$f|_{h_Y(X)} = h_{Y'} \circ h_Y^{-1}|_{h_Y(X)}.$$

Since compactification is closely related to Hausdorff spaces and locally compact spaces, it is not surprising that we can make use of it to check if a Hausdorff space is locally compact.

**Proposition 2.3.41 ► Characterisation of Locally Compact Spaces**

*A Hausdorff space  $X$  is locally compact if and only if for any  $x \in X$  and any open set  $U \subseteq X$  with  $x \in U$ , there exists an open compact set  $V \subseteq X$  such that  $x \in V \subseteq U$ .*

This result can be utilised to check if a subspace of a locally compact space is locally compact.

**Corollary 2.3.42 ► Local Compactness of Subspaces**

*Let  $X$  be a locally compact space and  $A \subseteq X$  be a subspace, then  $A$  is locally compact if*

- 1.  $A$  is closed, or*
- 2.  $A$  is open and  $X$  is Hausdorff.*

By using the above results, we propose the last conclusion:

**Proposition 2.3.43 ► Locally Compact Hausdorff Spaces and Homeomorphisms**

*A topological space  $X$  is locally compact and Hausdorff if and only if there exists a compact Hausdorff space  $Y$  such that  $X$  is homeomorphic to some open subset  $A \subseteq Y$ .*

**2.3.6 Metric Completion**

Consider  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  to be a map. It is clear that we can write  $f$  as a set of ordered pairs from  $X \times Y$ . By treating  $X$  as an index set, every such map  $f$  can be represented as a point from the product space

$$Y^X := \prod_{x \in X} Y.$$

Using the projection map, we can write

$$f(x) = \pi_x(f).$$

Clearly,  $Y^X$  is a topological space when equipped with the product topology. Therefore, we can define a suitable metric on it to “measure” the distance between maps.

**Definition 2.3.44 ► Uniform Metric and Uniform Topology**

Let  $(Y, d)$  be a metric space and  $\rho$  be a metric on  $Y$  defined by

$$\rho(x, y) = \frac{d(x, y)}{1 + d(x, y)}.$$

The **uniform metric** on  $Y^\Lambda$  is defined by

$$\bar{\rho}(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) = \sup \{ \rho(\pi_\alpha(\mathbf{x}), \pi_\alpha(\mathbf{y})) : \alpha \in \Lambda \}.$$

The **uniform topology** on  $Y^\Lambda$  is the topology generated by  $\bar{\rho}$ .

*Remark.* The uniform topology on  $\mathbb{R}^\Lambda$  is finer than the product topology and coarser than the box topology. If  $\Lambda$  is infinite, then the three topologies are pair-wise unequal.

Note that  $\bar{\rho}$  is a metric on  $Y^X$  because for any two maps  $f, g \in Y^X$ , we have

$$\bar{\rho}(f, g) = \sup \{ \rho(f(x), g(x)) : x \in X \},$$

i.e., we measure the distance between maps by taking the maximum distance between corresponding points.

The following result examines the completeness of the uniform metric spaces:

**Proposition 2.3.45 ► Completeness of the Uniform Metric Spaces**

*If  $(Y, d)$  is a complete metric space, then  $(Y^\Lambda, \bar{\rho})$  is complete for any index set  $\Lambda$ .*

Usually, given a topological space  $X$  and a metric space  $(Y, d)$ , we denote  $\mathcal{C}(X, Y)$  to be the set of all continuous maps from  $X$  to  $Y$  and  $\mathcal{B}(X, Y)$  to be the set of all bounded maps (i.e., maps  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  such that  $\text{diam}(f(X))$  is finite) from  $X$  to  $Y$ .

**Proposition 2.3.46 ► Closedness and Completeness of  $\mathcal{C}(X, Y)$  and  $\mathcal{B}(X, Y)$**

*Both  $\mathcal{C}(X, Y)$  and  $\mathcal{B}(X, Y)$  are closed with respect to the uniform topology on  $Y^\Lambda$ . If  $(Y, d)$  is complete, then both  $\mathcal{C}(X, Y)$  and  $\mathcal{B}(X, Y)$  are complete.*

For any two bounded maps  $f, g \in \mathcal{B}(X, Y)$ , it is clear that  $d(f(x), g(x))$  is bounded. Therefore, it makes sense to talk about its supremum.

**Definition 2.3.47 ► Supremum Metric**

The **supremum metric** on  $\mathcal{B}(X, Y)$  is defined by

$$\rho(f, g) = \sup \{ d(f(x), g(x)) : x \in X \}.$$

A basic yet important mapping between two spaces is the *identity map*. In a metric space, however, we can further generalise the identity map into maps which preserve the distance between points.

**Definition 2.3.48 ▶ Isometric Embedding**

Let  $(X, d_X)$  and  $(Y, d_Y)$  be metric spaces. A map  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  is an **isometric embedding** if for all  $a, b \in X$ ,

$$d_Y(f(a), f(b)) = d_X(a, b).$$

If  $f$  is surjective, then  $f$  is said to be an **isometry**.

Recall that with compactification, we can construct a compact Hausdorff space from a general topological space. Notice that every metric space is Hausdorff, so analogously, we can construct a complete metric space using an isometric embedding.

**Definition 2.3.49 ▶ Metric Completion**

Let  $(X, d_X)$  be a metric space. The **metric completion** of  $X$  is a complete metric space  $(Y, d_Y)$  with an isometric embedding  $\phi : X \rightarrow Y$  such that  $\overline{\phi(X)} = Y$ .

To obtain a compactification, we require quite a number of conditions. However, we will show that a metric completion always exists, and it is in fact unique up to isometry.

**Theorem 2.3.50 ▶ Existence and Uniqueness of Metric Completion**

*For every metric space  $(X, d_X)$ , there exists a complete metric space  $(Y, d_Y)$  and an isometric embedding  $\phi : X \rightarrow Y$  such that  $\phi(X)$  is dense in  $Y$ . Furthermore, for any complete metric space  $(Y, d_Y)$  and any isometric embedding  $\phi' : X \rightarrow Y'$  with  $\overline{\phi'(X)} = Y'$ , there exists an isometry  $f : Y \rightarrow Y'$  such that*

$$f|_{\phi(X)} = \phi' \circ \phi^{-1}.$$

# Connectivity of Topological Spaces

## 3.1 Connectedness

Colloquially, when we are talking about a space or “region”, we can distinguish between a “contiguous” region and a “disconnected” region based on whether one has to “jump” across “gaps” in order to traverse in the region. In this section, we will formalise this notion of connectedness.

### Definition 3.1.1 ► Separation

Let  $X$  be a topological space. A **separation** of  $X$  is a pair of disjoint non-empty open subsets  $U, V \subseteq X$  such that  $U \cup V = X$ . A space is **connected** if it does not contain any separation.

In other words, a separation is a bipartition of a space with non-empty open sets. This is intuitive because if 2 disjoint non-empty open sets can cover the space, then there must exist some gap in between the boundaries of the 2 sets.

Now, consider a disconnected space  $X$  formed by two connected non-empty spaces  $A$  and  $B$ . Intuitively, both  $A$  and  $B$  are also closed because their closure are equal to themselves. This inspires the following characterisation of a connected space:

### Proposition 3.1.2 ► Characterisation of Connected Spaces

*A topological space  $X$  is connected if and only if the only sets which are both open and closed in  $X$  are  $X$  and  $\emptyset$ .*

Intuitively, if we can find a separation in a space  $X$ , then any connected subspace of  $X$  should not be “cut off” by the separation.

### Proposition 3.1.3 ► Property of Connected Subspaces

*If  $U, V$  are a separation of a topological space  $X$  and  $Y \subseteq X$  is a connected subspace, then either  $Y \subseteq U$  or  $Y \subseteq V$ .*

Naturally, connectedness should be transitive, i.e., if two connected subsets are not disjoint, then their union should be connected.

**Proposition 3.1.4 ► Connectedness of the Union of Connected Subspaces**

If  $\{A_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$  is a collection of connected subsets in a topological space  $X$  such that

$$\bigcap_{\alpha \in \Lambda} A_\alpha \neq \emptyset,$$

then  $\bigcup_{\alpha \in \Lambda} A_\alpha$  is connected.

By intuition, if we slightly expand the boundary of a connected subset, then the resultant set should remain connected.

**Proposition 3.1.5 ► Slightly Larger Supersets of Connected Sets Are Connected**

If  $A$  is connected in a topological space  $X$  and  $A \subseteq B \subseteq \bar{A}$  for some  $B \subseteq X$ , then  $B$  is connected.

Recall that continuous maps preserve open sets, so it is also natural that the image of a connected set under a continuous map is also connected.

**Proposition 3.1.6 ► Continuous Maps Preserve Connectedness**

If  $f : X \rightarrow Y$  is continuous and  $A \subseteq X$  is connected, then  $f(A)$  is connected.

Lastly, if we take the Cartesian product of two connected spaces, then this should not result in any new “gap”.

**Proposition 3.1.7 ► Cartesian Products of Connected Spaces Are Connected**

If  $X$  and  $Y$  are connected topological spaces, then  $X \times Y$  is connected.

For those with background in graph theory, the discussion by now should have been clear that connectedness in topological spaces is a generalisation of connectedness in graphs. For example:

1. 3.1.1 is analogous to the fact that a graph is disconnected if and only if we can break it into two subgraphs sharing no common vertex such that there is no edge between their vertices in the original graph.
2. 3.1.2 is analogous to the fact that if a graph can be broken up into two subgraphs sharing no common vertex such that there is no edge between their vertices in the original graph, then any connected subgraph must be contained by one of the two subgraphs.
3. 3.1.3 is analogous to the fact that if we augment two connected graphs by identifying

some vertices, then the resulting graph is still connected.

Therefore, it is not surprising that we can generalise the notion of a *path* to topological spaces.

### Definition 3.1.8 ► Path

Let  $X$  be a topological space. For any  $x, y \in X$ , a **path** from  $x$  to  $y$  is a continuous map  $f : [a, b] \rightarrow X$  such that  $f(a) = x$  and  $f(b) = y$ . A space is **path connected** if there is a path between any two points in the space.

Clearly, path connectedness is a stronger version of connectedness.

### Proposition 3.1.9 ► Path Connectedness Implies Connectedness

*A space is connected if it is path connected.*

One might wonder if the converse of the above result is true. Intuitively, it should not be true. Specifically, we consider the following counter example known as the *topologist's sine curve*: define

$$S := \left\{ (x, y) \in \mathbb{R}^2 : y = \sin \frac{2\pi}{x}, x \in (0, 1] \right\}$$

and let  $f : (0, 1] \rightarrow S$  be defined as

$$f(t) = \left( t, \sin \frac{2\pi}{t} \right).$$

One may check that  $S = f((0, 1])$  is path connected and thus connected. Now, consider

$$\bar{S} = S \cup (\{0\} \times [-1, 1]),$$

which is still connected but not path connected.

## 3.2 Connected Components

Recall that in a graph, connectedness between vertices is an equivalence relation. Analogously, we can define a relation between two points in a topological space based on whether there exists a connected set containing both points.

One may check that such a relation is indeed an equivalence relation. In particular, we can partition a space using the equivalence classes.

**Definition 3.2.1 ▶ Connected Component**

Let  $\sim$  be a binary relation on a topological space  $X$  such that  $x \sim y$  if and only if there exists a connected subset  $C \subseteq X$  with  $x, y \in C$ . The **connected components** of  $X$  are the equivalence classes in the quotient  $X/\sim$ .

Intuitively,  $X/\sim$  contains all maximal connected subsets of  $X$ , which leads to the following obvious result:

**Proposition 3.2.2 ▶ Connected Components Are Connected**

*Every connected component of a topological space is connected.*

Similarly, we can define another equivalence relation using path connectedness.

**Definition 3.2.3 ▶ Path Component**

Let  $\overset{p}{\sim}$  be a binary relation on a topological space  $X$  such that  $x \overset{p}{\sim} y$  if and only if there exists a path from  $x$  to  $y$  in  $X$ . The **path components** of  $X$  are the equivalence classes in the quotient  $X/\overset{p}{\sim}$ .

Again, one may check that  $X/\overset{p}{\sim}$  contains all maximal path-connected subsets of  $X$ .

**Proposition 3.2.4 ▶ Path Components Are Path Connected**

*Every path component of a topological space is path connected.*

Recall that path connectedness is a stronger version of connectedness, so it is natural that every path component is contained in some connected component.

**Proposition 3.2.5 ▶ Connected Components Contain Path Components**

*Every path component of a topological space is contained in some connected component.*

Similar to our discussion of compactness, we can define connectedness in a local perspective.

**Definition 3.2.6 ▶ Local Connectedness**

A topological space  $X$  is **locally (path) connected at  $x \in X$**  if for all open sets  $U \subseteq X$  containing  $x$ , there exists a (path) connected open set  $V \subseteq X$  such that  $x \in V \subseteq U$ . The space  $X$  is **locally (path) connected** if it is locally connected at every  $x \in X$ .

It turns out that there is no need to differentiate between local connectedness and local path connectedness because the components induced by the two relations are the same in



a local context.

**Proposition 3.2.7 ► Connected Components in Locally Path Connected Spaces**

*If  $X$  is a locally path connected topological space, then  $X/\sim = X/\overset{p}{\sim}$ .*

In the ideal case, since every point in a topological space is contained by some (path) connected component, the space is naturally locally (path) connected if each of these components is open. This motivates the following characterisation:

**Proposition 3.2.8 ► Characterisation of Locally (Path) Connected Spaces**

*A topological space  $X$  is locally (path) connected if and only if for any open subset  $U \subseteq X$ , every (path) connected component of  $U$  is open.*

**Proposition 3.2.9 ► Quotient Topology over Connected Components Is Discrete**

*If  $X$  is a locally path connected space and  $\tilde{X} := X/\sim$  are the connected components of  $X$ , then the quotient topology on  $\tilde{X}$  is discrete.*